

JAMES E. KENNEDY'S RACE



BY MICHAEL S. TRINER
James E. Kennedy, a man who has been called the "father of the plastic industry," died last night at the age of 79, after a long illness. He was born in New York City and was a member of the Kennedy family. He was a pioneer in the use of plastics and computers who also favored trash.

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Mr. Kennedy, who was born in New York City in 1900, was a pioneer in the use of plastics and computers. He was also a collector of trash. He was a member of the Kennedy family and was a pioneer in the use of plastics and computers. He was also a collector of trash.

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35th
PRESIDENT
John F. Kennedy

UNDER SECRETARY GENERAL:
DERİN AKYÜREK
ACADEMIC ASSISTANT:
KAAN MUŞTU

Table of Contents

Introduction to the Committee

1.1 Life of John F. Kennedy

1.1.1 Harvard Wall Street

1.2 Foundation of the Cabinet

Era of John F Kennedy as the President of the US

The Cold War

3.1 Department of State

3.2 Department of Defence

3.3 Cuban Missile Crisis

3.3.1 Operation Mongoose

3.3.2 The 1963 Succession

3.3.3 Operation Northwoods

3.4.1 CIA Tensions

3.5 Vienna Summit

3.6 U-2 Incident

3.7 West New Guinea Dispute

Justice Department

4.1 Meredith Crisis

4.1.1 Integration of Ole Miss

Economy

5.1 Current Economic State

5.2 Economic Plans

5.3 Fiscal plan

5.3.1 Fiscal Year

5.1 1962 Investment Tax Credit

5.2 Role of Steward Udall

Bay of Pigs

3.3.1.1 The Dallas Transition

3.5 Laos Crisis

3.6 Congo Crisis

The Great Berlin Wall

Dominican Republic Instability

PTBT

The Apollo Program

The Civil Rights Movement

Introduction to the Cabinet

12.1 Archetype of the Cabinet

12.2 Structural Innovations

12.2.1 The Decline of the Formal Cabinet

12.2.2 The National Security State

12.3 Crisis Management

12.3.1 Executive Committee of the National Security Council

13.2 Operational Frameworks

The “Assistant” President

13.1 Dynamic of RFK

13.1.1 McNamara Revolution

Assassination of John Fitzgerald Kennedy

From JFK to LBJ

15.1 Continuity of the Cabinet

Letter from the Secretary General

Dear Participants,

First of all, it is my utmost pleasure to serve you as the Secretary General for the first edition of ION Model United Nations Conference. I am more than proud for making this conference happen with my colleagues and looking forward to see every attendee.

Essentially MUN's are great opportunities to increase your consultation capabilities, your assertiveness and understand how policy is implemented. I can honestly state that MUN impacted my perspective on life in a positive way. For this reason, it is my mission to transfer the experiences I have gained to the new generation and to ensure that they affect them in the same way.

Lastly as the executive team, in order to put this conference together we really plod away. We really worked hard to burn the soul of IONMUN26. And do not forget ION is the timeless voices for peace.

Sincerely,
Doruk Sapmaz

Letter from the Under Secretary General

Freedom has many difficulties and democracy is not perfect, but we have never had to put a wall up to keep our people in.”

As our dearest president once said.

Best of luck,

With sincereness Derin Akyurek

Letter from Academic Assistant:

Dear delegates,

It is with the utmost respect and sincere aspiration to welcome you all to this prestigious conference and committee. Before prelude, I would like to extend my thanks to the Secretariat, the rest of the Executive Team, and the Academic and Organization Teams for their meritorious efforts on the creation of this conference.

Besides, I would like to thank my Under Secretary General, Derin Aky rek for her honorable, quite precious, in short; inutterable efforts. As your Academic Assistant, I am highly suggesting you read this document thoroughly. We wrote a highly elaborated study guide for you all. It includes every detail you would need generally. You should be completely prepared with all of the information you require; your allocation's policies, positions, opinions, etc. In conclusion, I assure you all have your best times in this committee. Best wishes for your endeavors.

Kind regards,

Academic Assistant,

Kaan MU TU

kaansettar@gmail.com

Title

“A Bill For An Act Relating To Income Tax” ... The “bill for an act” phrase means that if the bill passes the Legislature and becomes law, it becomes an “act” of law and receives an “act number.” The title is often intentionally broad to allow leeway for changes in the bill’s content during the course of the session.

Sections

Bills are divided into sections. The first section may be a purpose section, which states the purpose of the bill and may describe the situation or problem that gives rise to the measure or describe the need for and intent of the legislation. They may also provide definitions of

terms, provide remedies and penalties, and specify how long the legislation will be in effect. Some bills will contain a “severability clause,” which instructs the court that if one section of the act is found unconstitutional, the remainder of the act will remain intact, or a “savings clause,” which states that the bill is not retroactive.

SECTION 3. Statutory
material to be repealed
is bracketed and
stricken. New
statutory material is
underscored.

Second to the Last Section

If the bill provides for changes in statutory or constitutional material, the second to the last section typically will be the Ramseyer provision. This section explains that in the previous sections of the bill, all statutory material that is to be added is underscored, and all statutory material that is to be repealed is bracketed and stricken [~~like this~~]. (This ensures that if the bill is enacted there will be no confusion)

SECTION 4. This Act
shall take effect
on July 1, 2019.

Last Section

The last section of the bill will provide the effective date – i.e., the date the law will take effect. This may be a specific date or may read, “This Act shall take effect upon its approval.” In some cases, more than one effective date may be provided – for example, the act will take effect on one date, provided that section 3 will take effect on another date.

(Sometimes during session, bills are amended to have far-in-the-future effective dates, such as 2050. While not invalid if enacted, such “defective dates” are inserted to ensure further discussion. Typically, such changes ensure the bill will have to go to conference committee if successful.)

S.C. _____

(Full title of your bill goes here)

In the Supreme Council

Main Sponsor: _____

Date: _____

An Act to

_____(The summary of your bill goes here)(Preamble)

Be it enacted by the Supreme Council gathered.

SEC. 1. 4 Short Title: Your bill will have an official title, but this is where you put the title you 5 actually want your bill to be called (i.e. JOBS Act, PATRIOT Act, etc.)

SEC. 2. 7 (a) Explanation of terminology- Which terms need to be defined in order to understand the bill?

(b) Not all terms will need to be defined. In fact, you may not need to define any terms.

SEC. 3. 11 What is the act going to do? Who is going to be involved / impacted / affected by the act?

SEC. 4. How is the act going to be funded? Who is going to enforce / administer this act? (Which government agencies will oversee the bill and its duties?).

SEC. 5. Penalties (if any) for non-compliance (not following the rules) of the act

SEC. 6. 18 Enactment Date: When will the law go into effect?

IMPORTANT NOTE FROM CO-USG: Usually we prefer bills in the format given above, but you don't have to use the exact format for the World Senate (since The World Senate was established as an emergency meeting senators were not provided with exact rules so they have every right to play and bend the rules according to their will and power) so if you trust yourself enough and want to make a difference you can write a bill according to your own. But this privilege will also come with exceptions ;

- 1) Your bill needs to have a title
- 2) Your bill needs to have a preamble (the preamble may be sectioned into multiple clauses but then your bill needs to continue with articles)
- 3) Your bill needs a sponsor(s list)
- 4) Your bill needs a consideration of budgeting\mandate

5) Your bill needs an enactment date

SAMPLE BILL

Gesetz zur Bekämpfung illegaler Einwanderung

May 16, 2026

Sponsor, *Gottfried Curio*

Article I -

Agentur zur Bekämpfung illegaler Migration (ABIM)

The Act on the Military Counterintelligence Service is amended as follows:

Clause 1

Duties of ABIM

The duty of ABIM will determine illegal immigrants and deport them. On this issue,

ABIM will have full operational authority.

Clause 2

Organization

ABIM will be a semi-independent agency under the Federal Police. The head of

ABIM will be appointed by the Presidency of the Federal Police.

Clause 3

Staff Distribution

ABIM will be organised in all States of the Federal Republic of Germany.

Staff will

be assigned due to the state's population (1/1000).

Article II -

Budgetary Provisions

The budget of ABIM will be %0,5 of the Federal Budget. ABIM will submit a budget

report to the Bundestag every month.

Clause 1

The budget will be used as follows; -%50 of ABIM's budget will be used for outposts. -%20 of the budget will be used for staff's salary. -%30 of the budget will be used for transportation.

Clause 2

Usage of the budget will be inspected by FIU.

Article III -

Mandate

ABIM will be able to arrest suspicious people without the consent of the Federal

Police in emergency situations.

Clause 1

Provisions on Jurisdiction

After the arrest, ABIM will determine whether the migrants will be deported or not.

The decision is enforced within 48 hours.

Clause 2

Reportation

ABIM will submit a report about the operations and deportations to the Bundestag every week.

Article IV - Entry into Force

This Act shall enter into force on the day after its promulgation.

Enter the next page for the example.

SAMPLE BILL

An Act to

Preamble,

Protect the constitutional Right to access abortion services, ensure reproductive freedom and safeguard the first amendment rights of the United States citizens by legalizing abortion.

Main Sponsor :

Co-Sponsors (Not necessary) :

SECTION 1: This act can shortly be referred as the “SAFE” Act (Securing Abortion and Freedom by Enforcement)

SECTION 2: Any individual or group that engages in violent behaviour, hate speech and hostile actions against individuals advocating for abortion rights and women who are seeking abortion shall be subject to legal penalties, including fines or imprisonment, as determined appropriate by the judiciary.

SECTION 3: Having an abortion shall be left under the woman’s decision. Abortion can be made by pills up to 9 weeks into pregnancy and can be made by surgical assistance up to 27 weeks of pregnancy. Any abortion after the

27th week of pregnancy shall not be allowed unless there are any health threats present.

SECTION 4: A minor seeking an abortion shall be required to obtain consent from a parent or legal guardian. However, in cases where obtaining such consent poses a risk to the minor's mental or physical well-being, or where the minor believes they may face harm due to ideological or personal differences, the minor shall have the right to request a psychological consultation with a licensed mental health professional. If, after consultation, the professional determines that involving the guardian may negatively impact the minor's health, the case will proceed by a judicial bypass process, allowing the minor to have legal abortion with court approval.

SECTION 5: Licenced, confidential counseling shall be made available at no cost to individuals considering or recovering from abortion. Participation shall be voluntarily intended to support mental and physical well being.

SECTION 6: All high schools shall provide mandatory, comprehensive sex education. The curriculum shall include instruction on, consent, and unwanted pregnancy prevention.

SECTION 7: The right of individuals to access and utilize condoms, birth control pills, and other FDA-approved contraceptive methods shall be fully protected under federal law. No individual, organization, or authority may restrict or deny access to these resources. Educational and healthcare institutions shall be motivated to provide affordable access to these sources while still keeping the patient's privacy.

SECTION 8: A department shall be established under the Department of Health and Human Services (HHS) to focus and work on this topic and an amount of \$3 000 000 (three million United States Dollars) shall be provided by the Department of Health and Human Services to fund this department. The new established department shall be called "ASD(Abortion Seeking Department)". And this bill shall be funded by this newly established department.

SECTION 9: This bill will be enacted 91 days after its passage.

SAMPLE AMENDMENT,

Main Sponsor : Pete Aguilar

Co sponsors: Patty Murray, Jon Ossoff

An amendment to the 4th section of the bill to change the word “minor” to “anyone under the legal age which is 18”.

CABINET RESOLUTIONS

The Cabinet can draft and declare Resolutions in order to recommend or express the opinion of the cabinet on one specific topic in a single document.

Proposal of the Senate Resolution has to have these items as in order; - A

Title that starts with "*A Resolution to...*",

- List of cabinet members that are sponsors of the bill. Main sponsor has to be declared separately on the proposal,
- Clauses that lists at least four problems about the topic,
- Clauses that lists at least four resolutions about the topic,

Clauses cannot mandate or command anything, clauses wording has to be formed as a recommendation. There cannot be an enforcement or appropriation clause since it is contradictory to the nature of Cabinet Resolutions.

Directives represent the immediate exercise of power. They do not go through readings or divisions.

Directive workshop

1. Introduction to Directives

What is a Directive?

A directive is a document that literally gives directions. Technically, all aspects of a directive are variable, but I will try to materialize them using examples. So, I am asking again, what is a Directive? In your daily life, you use directives most of the time. You are just vocally stating them or not giving details because of common sense. Let's examine the dialogue.

Dialogue I:

Derin: Hey Emre, pass me the yellow Cola!

Emre: (passes the yellow Cola)

Did you see it? Derin asked (or ordered) Emre to pass the yellow Cola to him. That's the most basic version of a directive.

Of course, we are not just writing pass me the yellow Cola– or conquer the city of St. Petersburg – on a piece of paper and submitting that. That's not a **good** directive. It's just an under-detailed directive. This won't give you the thing you want, but we'll come to how to write **good** directives later.

Now, let's get to the technical part of directives. First of all, “What should a directive do?” you might be asking. A directive should answer the WH questions (or 5N1K in Turkish). After that, all directives are classified. The most well-known classes are;

Personal Directives: This is the most common type of directive. These normally exercise the person's or the organization's powers and authority. So if you are a general who is in charge of the 2nd Army, you can command those troops using personal directives. In another case, if you are an ambassador representing a country in a NATO meeting, you could call in relevant persons (for instance, if the agenda is related to climate change, you may call in a scientist working on this area) to the agenda of the meeting using your “Ambassador” authority.

Joint Directives: These directives exercise 2+ people's authority. For a directive to count as a joint and not a committee directive, the signatory count shall be greater than 1 and less than the total number of delegates in a committee. For instance, if the committee has 16 delegates, the maximum number of signatories in joint directives is 15. To give an example, if you are a general and you have an admiral colleague, you might use both of your authorities to make an amphibious

invasion. Or you might use joint directives with another representative to make an agreement in a UNSC committee.

Committee Directives: These directives exercise the full power of the committee or the cabinet. For instance, if you are the Supreme Command of German Forces and you all agreed upon an elaborate operation that uses all of the German Army with all its branches, etc, you would use a committee directive. When a committee directive is submitted to the board, it first gets read by the board and then introduced to the committee, and then the committee holds a vote on the directive. From my experiences, this procedure has been the most widely accepted procedure however, the Crisis or Special procedures are really variable, so this might be different depending on a conference or even between committees in the same conference.

Top Secret Directives: So this is where all the fun begins. Normally directives are read by the board to be approved and sent to the crisis team however when it comes to the top secret directives all these change. The board no longer has authority over you. You can only use your own authority. These directives generally pass through enemy intelligence too. I won't detail these much because these are the same just with the "secret" twist. Using these you might betray your own cabinet or sabotage plans etc. The limit is your imagination and the USG.

Press Releases: These are just statements made by you or your cabinet; however, you can state the place or how the release will happen, for instance, you may have an actor make the release instead of you, against any sabotage.

Legislations: Now, this is where it gets somewhat confusing for some delegates. Legislations are basically laws that you write. These can be about anything. Generally when you write legislations you are in a ministers cabinet or have the role of a minister. So you might pass this without any approval from the rest of the cabinet except the top authority the USG or the board.

What makes a **good** directive?

So you think you learnt how to write directives and now you want to see how you might write better directives? Come on in, this is the right place for you.

A good directive has 2 parts,

- 1) Is it applicable in your timeline by your character/cabinet?
- 2) Does it give all the needed details?

Applicability: So this aspect is somewhat debatable, some USGs believe that you may not follow your own character's characteristics for instance if your character is Douglas MacArthur you might not want to act like you are the only genius in the world. (P.S. MacArthur did that, he was somewhat of an egoist.) Or you might not want to care about the Europe's future even though you are an English general in WWII (P.S. In WWII the UK did not want to harm the future of the continent.) However in most cases applicability increases both the realism and credibility of your directive. When you write something your character *would* plausibly support, it makes your ideas easier to pass and more convincing to others. Applicability doesn't mean

your directive has to be boring or historically predetermined — it just needs to make sense given your role, ideology, national interests, and the context of the timeline.

Let's take an example. If you were representing the USSR in 1945 you wouldn't propose free elections across Eastern Europe. This is highly unlikely to be applicable. Instead the Soviets would establish buffer states under Soviet influence.

Detail and Specificity: I would say this is the key for a great directive — even if its not applicable. Let's come back to the example “conquer the city of St. Petersburg.” This sounds *somewhat* impressive but it is so underdetailed. For instance, **Who** is conquering the city? **How** is the invasion going to happen? **When** will the invasion happen? **What** strategies, tactics and equipments are used? And the list goes on.

For a directive to be considered as a **good** directive it should answer these basic questions:

- Who** is acting?
- What** exactly is being done?
- Where** will it happen?
- When** will it begin or conclude?
- How** is it being implemented or enforced?
- Why** does it make sense strategically or politically?

Examples of directives

Example Directive I - Non-Aggression and Oil Trade Treaty of Tokyo - (Japan x Great Britain)

1. Great Britain will have access to the manpower in Manchukuo for 5 years and resources in Jilin for 10 years.
2. Great Britain will sell oil to Japan with 15 percent off the first year, 25 percent off the following 4 years and 20 percent off the final 5 years
3. Japan will not purchase oil from any other supplier other than Great Britain.
4. Any of the signatories can abandon the first three articles of the treaty whenever they desire except the first year.
5. Abandoning any article of this treaty will result in a fine of a hundred thousand barrels of oil worth of money.
6. None of the signatories of this treaty will start a war with another signatory for the duration of this treaty which is 10 years.

Example Directive II - Establishing a Spy Agency and Training Spies

To: The German Polizei Department

From: Erich Ludendorff

Due to the increasing tensions in Europe the need for counter intelligence and foreign intelligence is rising rapidly. To satisfy these needs I order the German Polizei Department to establish a sub-body under command of the Oberste Heeresleitung (OHL) and appointing myself, Erich Ludendorff, to the Director of Intelligence position. The name for this newly established sub-body shall be “*Abteilung III b*”

Training

150 trusted Polizei officers from the German Polizei Department shall be chosen and kidnapped while they are in night shift. These kidnapped officers shall be sent to a training facility in Leipzig since its a major industrial and university city so unusual activity wouldn't raise suspicion, there's excellent rail connections and it's far from the Western front so no Allied reconnaissance in the area. The secret facility shall be disguised as factories, warehouses and university's faculties.

The training shall consist of

- Immersive language instructions with native speakers; memorization drills; practicing regional dialects and slang.
- Learning basic cipher systems encoding/decoding drills, analysis of intercepted enemy codes.
- Practice forging handwriting and official stamps; chemistry for aging paper and ink.

- Acting classes, wardrobe management, psychological roleplaying, developing multiple "legend" identities.
- Memory palaces, photographic memory exercises, real-world observation tests.
- Practice in urban settings, use of mirrors or reflections, creating escape routes.
- Hands-on work with locks, explosives (small-scale), wires, and sabotage kits.
- Hand-to-hand combat, basic firearms training (small pistols), escape artist skills.
- Mastery of Morse, building and operating covert transmitters, antenna disguise techniques.
- Stress inoculation training, roleplay interrogations, isolation drills, and mental conditioning.

The training shall be done in 1 year for the first 50 officers and 2 years most for the remaining 100. After the training of the 150 agents 200 trusted officers shall be chosen and put through training. With this rate after approximately 3 years the *Abteilung III b* will have 350 active personnel.

The Director of *Abteilung III b* shall be informed about any of the problems during any procedures. The facility shall have a special module about cryptology and codebreaking called the *Taçbaş Room*, a module about civilian and enemy psychology called the *Red Module*, a special faculty in collaboration with the Leipzig University that will work on R&D called the *von Falkenhayn Faculty of Industry and Special Engineering of Leipzig University*.

The objective of this module shall be training the agents in both the use and breaking of cryptographic systems to ensure secure communication and exploit enemy transmissions. Training duration shall be 3 months and drills shall be continued throughout training. Also the best mathematicians in the country shall be allocated to this room. Its curriculum shall be the following:

Cipher Fundamentals

Caesar, Atbash, Vigenère, Playfair, and transposition ciphers.

Manual cipher wheels and cipher books.

Code Systems

Development of personal codebooks and one-time pads.

Use of numeric codes for places, people, and events.

Cryptanalysis

Frequency analysis and pattern recognition.

Brute force techniques using early mechanical aids (rotating discs, etc.).

Identifying operator errors in enemy transmissions.

Secure Communications Protocols

Compartmentalization of code knowledge.

Routine cipher changes to avoid compromise.

Emergency "burn codes" for sabotage or retreat.

Hands-On Practice

Live drills decoding captured enemy messages.

Red team vs. blue team exercises with encrypted briefings.

Interception of mock wireless messages from other teams.

Equipment Familiarization

Use of cipher typewriters and early rotor machines.

Concealed code containers .

Red Room

This room's objective shall be to prepare agents to resist interrogation, maintain cover identities under stress, and manipulate human behavior in foreign environments. The training duration shall be two months intensive training and continued simulation drills happening every few weeks unannounced. Its curriculum shall be the following:

Interrogation Resistance

Stress inoculation: controlled exposure to sleep deprivation, isolation.

Breathing techniques, disassociation training.

Use of constructed trauma stories to protect true information.

Personality Masking

Development of multiple "legend" personas.

Exercises in inhabiting conflicting emotional states.

Accent and dialect immersion to avoid exposure.

Deception & Influence

Reading body language and microexpressions.

Influence techniques: mirroring, rapport-building, subtle suggestion.

Manipulating emotions of targets (fear, trust, urgency).

Psychological Warfare

Use of rumors, false documents, and "leaks" to destabilize enemy morale.

Exploiting existing tensions among enemy ranks.

Coordinated disinformation campaigns.

Mental Endurance

Isolation chambers to test time perception and memory integrity.

Puzzle solving under pressure (blindfolded, handcuffed, etc.).

Group loyalty drills simulating betrayal and command stress.

von Falkenhayn Faculty of Industry and Special Engineering of Leipzig University

This faculty shall train the agents and also use the available trusted students in the Leipzig University to develop custom tools, disguises, and sabotage devices tailored to the needs of field agents. It shall be constructed in a hidden place underground the Leipzig industrial zones. Its structure shall be divided into three sections (Covert Tools, Chemical Substances and Disguise & Identity) These sections shall work on the following projects.

Covert Tools Development

Micro-compasses sewn into uniforms.

Lock-picking kits concealed in fountain pens or belt buckles.

Collapsible radio transmitters hidden in suitcases.

Explosives inside soap bars or ink bottles (for sabotage missions).

Chemical and Toxin R&D

Slow-reacting paper-aging chemicals for forged documents.

Ink formulas that disappear or change after a set time.

Fast-acting poisons with localized symptoms (to mimic natural death).

Development of interrogation-resistant drug counteragents.

Disguise & Identity Fabrication

Molds for face-altering prosthetics.

Reversible clothing .

Portable makeup and hair kits for rapid transformation.

Identity packs with forged passports, letters of employment, and ration cards.

Each of these modules should be run under absolute secrecy, and all inventions or techniques classified for internal use only. Unauthorized replication or dissemination is punishable under martial law.

All members of the *Abteilung III b* shall take an oath and accept that they are now a possession of the agency and they have dedicated themselves to the glory of the Kaiser and the Germanic Empire.

Example Directive III - Invasion of Poland

DATE: July 30th 1914

To: The Armies Stationed in the Eastern Front

From: Erich Ludendorff

8 armies with the following division template shall be created and stationed in the following cities.

1 Army = 10 Infantry Division + 4 Cavalry Division

1 Infantry Division = 2 Infantry Battallions + 1 Medic Battallion + 1 Engineer Battallion

1 Infantry Battallion = 5K Infantry + 500 Logistic Personnel (Engineer + Medic)

1 Engineer Battallion = 1.5K Engineers + 3K Infantry + 120 Artillery

1 Medic Battallion = 1.5K Medics + 3K Infantry

1 Cavalry Division = 5K Cavalries + 1.2K Infantry

Offensive on Poland - Operation Walcz o Warszawę!

The 6th, 7th and 8th Armies' aim is to create an encirclement by connecting in the city of Brest. The 6th and 7th Army shall siege the city of Lublin and create a constant artillery fire that will last for 6 shifts with each shift lasting 4 hours. There will be a 30 minute of preparation and break between these shifts. The required supplies shall be sent by the Austro - Hungarian Empire. While these artillery fire is ongoing the infantry shall be entrenched. The artillery shall start at exactly 31th of July 0600. While the 6th, 7th and Armies are preparing for the siege, the 8th Army shall start its march to Brest. The 4th and 5th Army shall siege the city of Lodz at 0700 as the same doctrine used in Lublin and the 2nd and 3rd Armies shall start marching to Warsaw at 1st of August at 1800 at that time the city of Lodz should be conquered so the 4th and 5th armies can also join them on the way and then siege the capital with the same tactic as 2nd of August 2200. At 1st of August 1800 the city of Lublin shall be conquered. After this the 6th and 7th Armies shall march to Brest to meet with the 8th Army. While all these are happening the 1st Army shall be on standby but on full alert.

The sieging artillery shall use all the available artillery's 3/4 with each firing at a sustained rate of 1 round per 2 minutes per gun.

Before the siegement atleast 1 cavalry division shall reconnaissance ahead of the sieges. Also while the artillery takes breaks the half of the cavalry divisions shall make an hit and run attack on the city.

Communication

The Armies also establish field telegraphs every 25 kilometers and between those telegraphs couriers on horseback that are allocated from the cavalry divisions shall be used. Every 12 hours the main command shall be updated.

Logistics

The Austro-Hungarian support shall be allocated to the 4th, 5th, 6th and 7th Armies including food, ammo and medical supplies. The 1st, 2nd, 3rd and 8th Armies shall be supplied by the German Empire with full ammo, food and medical supplies.

After the capturement of Lublin a mobile supply depot shall be established until a railway extension arrives. Ammunition depots in Krakow, Katowice and Lemberg shall be established and the Austro-Hungarian Supreme Command shall be informed of the 4th/5th/6th/7th Armies to better satisfy their supply needs.

An joint field logistics HQ named “*Amazon*” shared between German and Austro-Hungarian commands to prevent overlapping or delayed shipments.

Morale

A song named “*Nein Sukhomlinov*” (aiming the current war minister of the Russian Empire) shall be composed with the help of the Turkish War Musicians (Mehterans).

The lyrics of the song shall be:

From Brandenburg to Bosporus shore,
Von Brandenburg bis Bosporus' Strand,
We march to thunder, drums of war.
Wir marschieren mit Donner, Trommeln der Schlacht,
While you in furs and velvet sit,
Du thronst in Samt, in gold'ner Pracht,
Your armies break, your sabers quit.
Doch dein Heer zerbricht – kein Mut, keine Macht!

Chorus

Nein Sukhomlinov! Nein zu der Lüge!
(Nein Sukhomlinov! Nein to your lies!)
Your medals shine, but truth denies.
Dein Orden glänzt, doch nichts ist wahr—

Your empire rots, your banners fall,
Dein Reich verrottet, fällt in Gefahr!
To Hindenburg and Istanbul!
Für Hindenburg und Istanbul!

Verse 2

You sent men east with empty guns,
Du sandtest Männer mit leeren Gewehren,
While caviar fed bloated sons.
Dein Adel schmaust—des Volkes Beschwerden.
You spoke of might, but showed us mud—
Von Stärke sprachst du, doch schlammig war dein Weg,
And drowned the bear in soldier's blood.

Der Bär ertrinkt im Blute—kein Sieg!

Chorus

Nein Sukhomlinov! Stolz ohne Sinn!
(Nein Sukhomlinov! Pride without cause!)
The steppe won't save what you can't win.
Die Steppe schützt nicht, was du verlierst.
With Mehter horns and Teuton might,
Mit Mehter-Hörnern und deutscher Kraft,
We ride beneath the crescent light!
Im Halbmonds Licht, das Sieg erschafft!

Bridge (Mehter interlude)

Zurna screams, the davul shakes—
Zurna schreit, die Davul kracht—

Through snow and fire, the empire breaks.

Durch Schnee und Feuer fällt dein Reich.

You wore a sword, but not the weight—

Du trugst ein Schwert, doch nie im Streit—

Now soldiers curse your gilded fate.

Verflucht bist du, in Ewigkeit!

Final Chorus

Nein Sukhomlinov! Nein zu dem Krieg!

(Nein Sukhomlinov! No to your war!)

You lost the line, then closed the door.

Du ließest sie sterben, schlossest das Tor.

Let Muscovites now dread the flame—

Jetzt fürchten Russen unser' Flammen—

For Kaiser's steel shall carve your name!

Des Kaisers Stahl wird dich verdammen!

Contingencies

***IF** Lublin or Lodz holds out past 1st of August the Schlieffen Plan shall be in place.*

***IF** Russian reinforcements arrive at Brest before the encirclement the Younis Plan shall be in place.*

***IF** the supplies gets sabotages or delay the Bismarck Plan shall be in place.*

***IF** the encirclement cannot be made, the march to Warsaw shall be paused and the Armies shall wait until further orders.*

Schlieffen Plan

In the case that Lodz holds out the march to Warsaw shall be paused and the 2nd and 3rd Armies shall reinforce the Lodz siege and join the artillery and the cavalry attacks.

However if the Lublin holds out after the artillery stops the infantry shall make an offensive into the city from all sides and capture the city. If that cannot be achieved in 2 hours

all German soldiers shall retreat and the artillery protocol shall start with 3 shifts instead of 6. This shall be done until the city falls. (Artillery -> Offensive -> Artillery) Until Lublin falls the encirclement cannot be made so the Warsaw siege will be paused until further orders

Younis Plan

The first army shall move to reinforce the armies attacking Brest.

Bismarck Plan

The 3/4 of the cavalry units nearest to the sabotage shall move to the sabotaged zone with engineers and recapture the area and repair the railroads or the sabotaged infrastructure.

Example Directive III - Spy Directive

From: Mr. Hill

Date:19/09/1962

To: RA

Time: 12.15

Personal Directive

What: a directive for to find out who organized this operation with using spy

when : asap

who : who they will chose myself and they would be have skills what we need in that topic

Why:to find out who organise this operation

How:

Firstly with the power of the CIA I will research the terrorist groups who have power in the area because if there is an event in the world CIA able to get info about that operation CIA will use their own ways to research the terrorist groups. They will use spies who get education in the USA and work at least 15 years in the area for the CIA and have a good relationship with terrorist groups in those areas and have a phone signal jammer and they will look Asian . They will collect the information and in 1 april 2024 if they have they will use their secret bases and secret phones that can't be detected by phone radar. They will get in contact at 12.00 am .If they don't have secret bases the government of USA will design a sports match and the spy will bet this match and they will win that bet. Because the match will be fraudulent after they get Money they will design a secret safe house. And sent infos for us. After they got infos from the terrorist group IF they didn't do anything. We will start to research the government of China. The same conditions who get education in the USA and work at least 15 years in the area for the CIA and have a good relationship with the government of China have a phone radar jammer and they will look ABG . In addition, they can sacrifice themselves for our government. They will have a poison that can kill in a second if they are arrested or come out they will use them . after get informations from inside they will use the same ways to get communicate but the date will be 3 April 2024 after CIA get informations they will sent a report for me and Depending on the situation, I will have journalists from all over the world make news that will criticize them in the press at the same time. An attitude will be taken against them in the whole world, especially in my own country.

Introduction to the Committee

For the introduction of the committee I as the USG of this committee highly advise you to watch this video.

<https://youtu.be/NadbWnilh-U?si=Sp-Ez0rLpRfHfM1Q>

“Defense Secretary Robert S. McNamara stands as the strong man of the Kennedy Cabinet. His presence is emphatically felt by the Pentagon braid; his computing-machine efficiency has won the President’s high admiration.

Treasury Secretary C. Douglas Dillon scores impressively for no-nonsense administration of his department, for a clear-eyed approach to such sticky problems as the gold flow, foreign aid, and tariff reduction; the new balanced budget gives Dillon another boost. He and Kennedy both cherish his Republicanism.

Attorney General Robert F. Kennedy remains his big brother’s closest confidant; an Administration troubleshooter in foreign policy and national intelligence, he has acted with skill and dash in anti-racketeering and civil rights enforcement.

Labor Secretary Arthur J. Goldberg rates among the top Cabinet members for his articulation of the Administration’s labor-management policies and for his adroit mediation of labor disputes involving ferryboats and tugboats, airline flight engineers, and the Metropolitan Opera.

State Secretary Dean Rusk ranks at the top of the middle group; although he retains the confidence of the President as his chief adviser on foreign policy, Rusk has struck few sparks as an Administration spokesman, has not yet solved the problems of internal administration at State, which is due for another major shakeup.

HEW Secretary Abraham A. Ribicoff has worked hard at advancing the Administration’s welfare plans but hasn’t yet sold Congress on the key programs—medical care for the aged and aid to education. His considerable vanity has exposed him to some sniping, but he is rated as a solid administrator.

Commerce Secretary Luther H. Hodges has served quietly and colorlessly as an administrator and as the New Frontier’s link with business; the Administration expects him to distinguish himself in the impending fight to liberalize foreign trade.

Agriculture Secretary Orville L. Freeman has not improved the farm situation. Perhaps nobody can.

Postmaster General J. Edward Day is the unknown man of the Cabinet; he has struggled manfully to reduce his department's annual billion-dollar deficit, this year will champion a postal rate bill designed to increase the Department's revenues by \$650 million a year (but most of it will be absorbed by pay raises for Post Office employees).

Interior Secretary Stewart L. Udall has displayed symptoms of foot-in-mouth disease, been frustrated by the White House's lack of interest in his grand design for new national park and conservation programs.

HEW's Ribicoff, who plans to run this year for the Senate in Connecticut, will probably be the first member of Kennedy's Cabinet to depart. The first-year stability of the Kennedy Cabinet is not unusual. In Franklin Roosevelt's first year, only one Cabinet member left; he was Treasury Secretary William Woodin, who resigned because of illness. There was a wholesale turnover in Harry Truman's inherited first Cabinet, but in the year after that the only change in new members was the substitution of John Snyder for Treasury Secretary Fred Vinson, who was appointed Chief Justice. In Dwight Eisenhower's first year, only Labor Secretary Martin Durkin dropped out."

QUOTED FROM THE TIME ARCHIVES

1.1 Life of John F. Kennedy

John F. Kennedy was the 35th President of the United States (1961-1963), the youngest man elected to the office. On November 22, 1963, when he was hardly past his first thousand days in office, JFK was assassinated in Dallas, Texas, becoming also the youngest President to die.

John F. Kennedy Jr. was in the public eye from his birth in 1960, two weeks after his father was elected president, until his death in 1999 when the Piper Saratoga small aircraft he was piloting crashed into the Atlantic Ocean seven miles off the coast of Martha's Vineyard (MA), killing him, his wife of three years, Carolyn Bessette Kennedy, and her older sister Lauren Bessette (Ponterotto, 2019). Many readers may remember iconic images of JFK Jr. throughout his short life. One of the earliest images was of young JFK Jr., then referred to as "John-John," playing under his father's desk in the Oval Office. More solemn was the image of young JFK Jr. saluting his father's casket as the funeral procession passed by on his third birthday, November 25, 1963. As a young man, JFK Jr. was selected by People magazine in 1988 as the "Sexiest Man Alive" and one of the world's most eligible bachelors. Always under a media microscope, JFK Jr.'s life was chronicled throughout his years at Brown University and then New York University Law School. His first two failed attempts at passing the New York State Bar exam made headline news, as did his success on attempt number three. JFK Jr. spent four years as Assistant District Attorney for Manhattan, where he won all six cases in which he was the lead prosecutor. Not finding his calling in the field of law, JFK Jr. struck out on his own in co-founding the political magazine George with partner Michael Berman in 1995. Though the magazine was initially successful, by 1999 George was failing financially and in the process of closing down. At this time JFK Jr. was contemplating his next career move. Unfortunately, JFK Jr.'s personal and career development ended abruptly and prematurely on July 16, 1999 in his last and fatal flight on route to Martha's Vineyard. The track that JFK Jr.'s life would have taken if but not for that fatal flight, remains a mystery that we attempt to unravel, in part, in this mixed methods study

Rose Fitzgerald Kennedy, who was a very disciplined and organized woman, made the following entry on a notecard, when her second child was born:

John Fitzgerald Kennedy

Born Brookline, Mass. (83 Beals Street) May 29, 1917



In all, Rose Fitzgerald Kennedy would have nine children, four boys and five girls. She kept notecards for each of them in a small wooden file box and made a point of writing down everything from a doctor's visit to the shoe size they had at a particular age. John Fitzgerald Kennedy was named in honor of Rose's father, John Francis Fitzgerald, the Boston Mayor

popularly known as Honey Fitz. Before long, family and friends called this small blue-eyed baby, Jack. Jack was not a very healthy baby, and Rose recorded on his notecard the childhood diseases from which he suffered, such as: "whooping cough, measles, chicken pox."

On February 20, 1920 when Jack was not yet three years old, he became sick with scarlet fever, a highly contagious and then potentially life-threatening disease. His father, Joseph Patrick Kennedy, was terrified that little Jack would die. Mr. Kennedy went to the hospital every day to be by his son's side, and about a month later Jack took a turn for the better and recovered. But Jack was never very healthy, and because he was always suffering from one ailment or another his family used to joke about the great risk a mosquito took in biting him – with some of his blood the mosquito was almost sure to die!

When Jack was three, the Kennedys moved to a new home a few blocks away from their old house in Brookline, a neighborhood just outside of Boston. It was a lovely house with twelve rooms, turreted windows, and a big porch. Full of energy and ambition, Jack's father worked very hard at becoming a successful businessman. When he was a student at Harvard College and having a difficult time fitting in as an Irish Catholic, he swore to himself he would make a million dollars by the age of 35. There was a lot of prejudice against Irish Catholics in Boston at that time, but Joseph Kennedy was determined to succeed. Jack's great-grandparents had come from Ireland and managed to provide for their families, despite many hardships. Jack's grandfathers did even better for themselves, both becoming prominent Boston politicians. Jack, because of all his family had done, could enjoy a very comfortable life. The Kennedys had everything they needed and more.

By the time Jack was eight there were seven children altogether. Jack had an older brother, Joe; four sisters, Rosemary, Kathleen, Eunice, and Patricia; and a younger brother, Robert. Jean and Teddy hadn't been born yet. Nannies and housekeepers helped Rose run the household.



At the end of the school year, the Kennedy children would go to their summer home in Hyannis Port on Cape Cod where they enjoyed swimming, sailing, and playing touch football. The Kennedy children played hard, and they enjoyed competing with one another. Joseph Sr. encouraged this competition, especially among the boys.

He was a father with very high expectations and wanted the boys to win at sports and everything they tried. As he often said, "When the going gets tough, the tough get going." But sometimes these competitions went too far. One time when Joe suggested that he and Jack race on their bicycles, they collided head-on. Joe emerged unscathed while Jack had to have twenty-eight stitches. Because Joe was two years older and stronger than Jack, whenever they fought, Jack would usually get the worst of it. Jack was the only sibling who posed any real threat to Joe's dominant position as the oldest child.

Jack was very popular and had many friends at Choate, a boarding school for adolescent boys in Connecticut. He played tennis, basketball, football, and golf and also enjoyed reading. His friend Lem Billings remembers how unusual it was that Jack had a daily subscription to the

New York Times. Jack had a "clever, individualist mind," his Head Master once noted, though he was not the best student. He did not always work as hard as he could, except in history and English, which were his favorite subjects.

"Now Jack," his father wrote in a letter one day, "I don't want to give the impression that I am a nagger, for goodness knows I think that is the worse thing any parent can be, and I also feel that you know if I didn't really feel you had the goods I would be most charitable in my attitude toward your failings. After long experience in sizing up people I definitely know you have the goods and you can go a long way...It is very difficult to make up fundamentals that you have neglected when you were very young, and that is why I am urging you to do the best you can. I am not expecting too much, and I will not be disappointed if you don't turn out to be a real genius, but I think you can be a really worthwhile citizen with good judgment and understanding."

Jack graduated from Choate and entered Harvard in 1936, where Joe was already a student. Like his brother Joe, Jack played football. He was not as good an athlete as Joe but he had a lot of determination and perseverance. Unfortunately, one day while playing he ruptured a disk in his spine. Jack never really recovered from this accident and his back continued to bother him for the rest of his life.

The two eldest boys were attractive, agreeable, and intelligent young men and Mr. Kennedy had high hopes for them both. However, it was Joe who had announced to everyone when he was a young boy that he would be the first Catholic to become President. No one doubted him for a moment. Jack, on the other hand, seemed somewhat less ambitious. He was active in student groups and sports and he worked hard in his history and government classes, though his grades remained only average.

Late in 1937, Mr. Kennedy was appointed United States Ambassador to England and moved there with his whole family, with the exception of Joe and Jack who were at Harvard. Because of his father's job, Jack became very interested in European politics and world affairs. After a summer visit to England and other countries in Europe, Jack returned to Harvard more eager to learn about history and government and to keep up with current events.

Joe and Jack frequently received letters from their father in England, who informed them of the latest news regarding the conflicts and tensions that everyone feared would soon blow up into a full-scale war. Adolph Hitler ruled Germany and Benito Mussolini ruled Italy. They both had strong armies and wanted to take land from other countries. On September 1, 1939, Germany invaded Poland and World War II began.

By this time, Jack was a senior at Harvard and decided to write his thesis on why Great Britain was unprepared for war with Germany. It was later published as a book called *Why England Slept*. In June 1940, Jack graduated from Harvard. His father sent him a cablegram from London: "TWO THINGS I ALWAYS KNEW ABOUT YOU ONE THAT YOU ARE SMART TWO THAT YOU ARE A SWELL GUY LOVE DAD."

QUOTED FROM THE LIBRARY OF JFK.

Era of John F Kennedy as the President of the US

John F. Kennedy was sworn in as the 35th president on January 20, 1961. In his inaugural speech he spoke of the need for all Americans to be active citizens. "Ask not what your country can do for you, ask what you can do for your country," he said. He also asked the nations of the world to join together to fight what he called the "common enemies of man: tyranny, poverty, disease, and war itself." President Kennedy, together with his wife and two children, brought a new, youthful spirit to the White House. The Kennedys believed that the White House should be a place to celebrate American history, culture, and achievement. They invited artists, writers, scientists, poets, musicians, actors, and athletes to visit them. Jacqueline Kennedy also shared her husband's interest in American history. Gathering some of the finest art and furniture the United States had produced, she restored all the rooms in the White House to make it a place that truly reflected America's history and artistic creativity. Everyone was impressed and appreciated her hard work.

The White House also seemed like a fun place because of the Kennedys' two young children, Caroline and John-John. There was a pre-school, a swimming pool, and a tree-house outside on the White House lawn. President Kennedy was probably the busiest man in the country, but he still found time to laugh and play with his children.

However, the president also had many worries. One of the things he worried about most was the possibility of nuclear war between the United States and the Soviet Union. He knew that if there was a war, millions of people would die. Since World War II, there had been a lot of anger and suspicion between the two countries but never any shooting between Soviet and American troops. This 'Cold War', which was unlike any other war the world had seen, was really a struggle between the Soviet Union's communist system of government and the United States' democratic system. Because they distrusted each other, both countries spent enormous amounts of money building nuclear weapons. There were many times when the struggle between the Soviet Union and the United States could have ended in nuclear war, such as in Cuba during the 1962 missile crisis or over the divided city of Berlin.

President Kennedy worked long hours, getting up at seven and not going to bed until eleven or twelve at night, or later. He read six newspapers while he ate breakfast, had meetings with important people throughout the day, and read reports from his advisers. He wanted to make sure that he made the best decisions for his country. "I am asking each of you to be new pioneers in that New Frontier," he said. The New Frontier was not a place but a way of thinking and acting. President Kennedy wanted the United States to move forward into the future with new discoveries in science and improvements in education, employment and other fields. He wanted democracy and freedom for the whole world.

One of the first things President Kennedy did was to create the Peace Corps. Through this program, which still exists today, Americans can volunteer to work anywhere in the world where assistance is needed. They can help in areas such as education, farming, health care, and construction. Many young men and women have served as Peace Corps volunteers and have won the respect of people throughout the world.

President Kennedy was also eager for the United States to lead the way in exploring space. The Soviet Union was ahead of the United States in its space program and President Kennedy was determined to catch up. He said, "No nation which expects to be the leader of other nations can expect to stay behind in this race for space." Kennedy was the first president to ask Congress to approve more than 22 billion dollars for Project Apollo, which had the goal of landing an American man on the moon before the end of the decade.

President Kennedy had to deal with many serious problems here in the United States. The biggest problem of all was racial discrimination. The US Supreme Court had ruled in 1954 that segregation in public schools would no longer be permitted. Black and white children, the decision mandated, should go to school together. This was now the law of the land. However, there were many schools, especially in southern states, that did not obey this law. There was also racial segregation on buses, in restaurants, movie theaters, and other public places.

Thousands of Americans joined together, people of all races and backgrounds, to protest peacefully this injustice.

Martin Luther King Jr. was one of the famous leaders of the movement for civil rights. Many civil rights leaders didn't think President Kennedy was supportive enough of their efforts. The President believed that holding public protests would only anger many white people and make it even more difficult to convince the members of Congress who didn't agree with him to pass civil rights laws. By June 11, 1963, however, President Kennedy decided that the time had come to take stronger action to help the civil rights struggle. He proposed a new Civil Rights bill to the Congress, and he went on television asking Americans to end racism. "One hundred years of delay have passed since President Lincoln freed the slaves, yet their heirs, their grandsons, are not fully free," he said. "This Nation was founded by men of many nations and backgrounds...and on the principle that all men are created equal." President Kennedy made it clear that all Americans, regardless of their skin color, should enjoy a good and happy life in the United States.

1.2 Foundation of the Cabinet

The formation of the cabinet was based on several factors. The first—and perhaps the most significant—was that Kennedy had won the 1960 election by a very narrow margin, and there was a sharp divide in Congress between his Democratic Party and the opposing Republicans. To overcome this, he included in his cabinet not only members of his own party but also prominent figures from the Republican Party (such as Treasury Secretary C. Douglas Dillon).

Key Terminology,

Under this heading, there are some terms that you will likely hear frequently and that we specifically want you to use in your directives.

The Best and the Brightest:

This phrase is used to describe Kennedy's cabinet and advisory staff. It refers to young technocrats who are academically outstanding, typically graduates of Ivy League universities (Harvard, Yale, etc.), and highly qualified.

ExComm (Executive Committee of the National Security Council):

A special crisis management team established by JFK, particularly during emergencies such as the Cuban Missile Crisis, consisting of the most critical members of the Cabinet.

Bipartisanship:

The unification of the interests of the Democratic and Republican parties when national interests are at stake.

Technocracy:

The practice of placing engineers, economists, or managers who are experts in their fields (e.g., Robert McNamara) at the helm of decision-making mechanisms rather than politicians.

Backchannel Diplomacy (Secret-Backdoor Diplomacy):

A tactic aimed at preventing crises (such as the risk of nuclear war) by establishing direct and secret communication outside of official channels, particularly with the Soviet Union.

The Cold War

The Cold War (English: Cold War, Russian: Холодная война) was an international political and military tension between the Western Bloc, led by the United States, and the Eastern Bloc, led by the Soviet Union, beginning with the announcement of the Truman Doctrine (1947) and continuing until the dissolution of the USSR (1991). This tension between the Western world, led by America, and the communist bloc, led by the Soviet Union, permeated a wide area of the world and affected large segments of the population. During the Cold War, NATO was also known as the "Western Alliance." The Western Bloc consisted of NATO member countries and non-NATO member countries allied with the United States, which were capitalist and anti-communist. The Eastern Bloc consisted of communist countries that were members of the Warsaw Pact and other non-member communist countries. In addition to these two opposing blocs, there was a third bloc, the Non-Aligned Movement, which did not support either bloc. China and Yugoslavia were both Eastern Bloc and Non-Aligned Movement countries. The reason these two communist countries were in both blocs was their differences of opinion with the Soviet Union.

The three countries that acted together against Adolf Hitler's aggression during World War II—the Soviet Union, the United States, and the United Kingdom—were different in many ways. The Soviet Union, from 1926 onwards, was a centralized country ruled by the decisions of Joseph Stalin. The United Kingdom had a constitutional monarchy. The United

States, on the other hand, had a separation of powers, with many actors involved in decision-making.

While there were historical disagreements between the United Kingdom and the Soviet Union, the United States was also uneasy about the Soviet Union being the vanguard of communism. Stalin's non-aggression pact with Adolf Hitler before World War II also created trust issues between the countries. However, both the United States and the United Kingdom were aware that Hitler could not be defeated without the Soviet Union. After Hitler attempted to invade the Soviet Union with Operation Barbarossa, British Prime Minister Winston Churchill described Hitler as a "devil" and announced that the United Kingdom would support the Soviet Union. Former United States Secretary of State Cordell Hull announced that his country would provide all possible support to the Soviet Union in the face of Hitler's aggression.

While World War II was ongoing, on August 9, 1941, United States President Franklin D. Roosevelt and British Prime Minister Winston Churchill met off the coast of Newfoundland. This was their first meeting during the war, and they agreed on the text of the Atlantic Charter. Similar to Woodrow Wilson's Fourteen Points, this charter outlined how the two countries would conduct the war. It emphasized the need for a new and effective international organization to replace the failed League of Nations. While Roosevelt and Churchill signed the charter, Stalin refused to sign it.

Despite their differences, these three countries acted together. First, in 1941, the British-Soviet armies overthrew the pro-German Reza Pahlavi in Iran and conquered the country. Following the conquest of Iran, various forms of aid began flowing to the Soviet Union via the Caspian Sea. American and British intelligence began sharing crucial information with the Soviet Union following the deciphering of the Enigma code. Stalin, who had not signed the Atlantic Charter, declared his support for the United Nations Declaration, announced on January 1, 1942, and initially supported by more than twenty countries, in light of the developing relations.

As relations progressed, the United States and the United Kingdom began pursuing a "Europe First" policy. Various American aid efforts to the Soviet Union were delayed, and conversely, as a result of Churchill's persuasion efforts, it was decided that the American army would

support British troops in North Africa. Stalin was not pleased with this decision. However, during the Battle of Stalingrad, American and British support began to wane. This led Stalin to believe that "the West is waiting for the Nazi and Soviet armies to destroy each other, and in the end, a peace will be imposed on their terms." Following the decisive victory of American and British forces in North Africa, Berlin began to be bombed by the British Air Force. Roosevelt declared that there would be no compromise with Germany and demanded unconditional surrender. These events, unfolding during a period when opposition was rising in Germany, restored Hitler's power and played a significant role in the German army's continuation of the war against the Soviet Union, leading to increased Soviet losses. During this process, the United States and the United Kingdom's increasingly independent actions from the Soviet Union, their "Europe First" approach that left the Soviet Union isolated against Nazi Germany, laid the foundation for the Cold War.

Following World War II, the establishment of people's democracies and the transition to socialist systems in many countries, along with the spread of socialist movements, were met with disapproval by the United States. On March 5, 1946, Winston Churchill, former British Prime Minister and one of the leading Western politicians, delivered his famous speech in Fulton, Missouri, alongside President Harry S. Truman, declaring a political war against the Soviet Union and introducing the phrase "Iron Curtain." Churchill called on the leaders of Anglo-Saxon countries to form a united front against socialism. This speech became an action plan for the Western Bloc on the international stage. Thus, the Cold War began, initiating an arms race and leading to the establishment of American bases and military blocs around the USSR and its allies. The US pursued a containment strategy against the USSR and other socialist countries. In March 1947, US President Truman announced a doctrine based on economic and military aid to countries deemed to be under threat from the USSR. A month later, the Allied conference in Moscow ended in failure, and the parties continued to maintain their separate presence in the territories they had liberated from fascist occupation.

In May, the ministers who were members of the Communist Party in the Italian and French governments were forced to resign. The main event that defined May 1947 was the announcement of the Marshall Plan. Faced with Chiang Kai-shek's inability to defend his position in China, the US aimed to redirect the aid envisioned by the Truman Doctrine to European countries, including Germany, hoping to attract the people's democracies of Eastern Europe with economic aid. However, the Eastern European countries rejected the Marshall Plan in July 1947. In October of the same year, the Cominform was established to coordinate

the foreign policy of the USSR and socialist countries. In February 1948, faced with the establishment of a people's democracy in Czechoslovakia, Western countries sought to create a fait accompli in the German territories they occupied. The Berlin Blockade (June 1948 - May 1949), declared in response to this development, marked a significant turning point in the escalation of the Cold War. Following the announcement of the establishment of NATO by the US and its allies in April 1949, two separate states were established in Germany between May and November. During this period, the USSR's announcement in September 1949 that it had produced its first atomic bomb ended the US monopoly in this field. One of the peaks of the Cold War was undoubtedly the Korean War, which began in 1950; so much so that the UN's support for South Korea created the danger of a world war.

Following Stalin's death in 1953, a relative détente in the Cold War occurred with the armistice in Korea in July. Following the establishment of the Warsaw Pact in May 1955, the US and Soviet representatives who met face-to-face in Geneva in July, while failing to achieve any concrete results on worldwide disarmament, were in a way a significant step towards reducing tensions. From 1957 onwards, the *raison d'être* of the Cold War gradually diminished. In this context, the 1958 Geneva talks on halting nuclear tests were followed by the Eisenhower-Khrushchev meeting in 1959. From 1960 onwards, the Soviet Union's intensified policy of peaceful coexistence resonated widely throughout the world. Following the Cuban Missile Crisis of 1962, the Moscow Treaty on halting nuclear tests was signed between the US and the USSR in 1963. The Cold War, which characterized the 1950s, manifested itself through displays of power, political threats and blackmail, destructive and divisive activities, psychological warfare methods, provocative propaganda, and other such methods. The shift towards détente in the Cold War, which began with the Moscow Treaty, achieved a significant political success with the signing of the 1975 Helsinki Final Act. However, after 1980, the US-initiated policy of ending détente and escalating the Cold War, using various events as pretexts, once again became influential in international politics. The Gorbachev-Reagan summit in late 1985 was an important step taken to prevent this development.

After World War II, the threats of war between the Eastern and Western blocs created tension throughout the world. During this period, a paranoia of nuclear apocalypse arose among people, and world states tried to take sides with one of the two blocs. Although the tension never escalated into a hot war between the parties, they tried to wear each other down in

every way. It is generally accepted that the fall of the Berlin Wall paved the way for the collapse of communism, and the dissolution of the Soviet Union ended the Cold War. During the Cold War, the potentials of both sides were:

Eastern Bloc Army:

1.8K Bomber

38 K Tanks

Nuclear 12, conventional 495 Submarines

30 Cruisers (189 escort)

7.7 million manpower

700 MFBM, 75 ICBM nuclear missiles

Western Allied Forces:

2260 Bomber Aircraft

16,000 Tanks

32 Nuclear, 260 Conventional Submarines

66 Cruisers (1107 escorts)

76 Battleships and Carriers

8 million manpower

250 MFBM, 450 ICBM nuclear missiles

Under these conditions, a potential nuclear war would significantly impact the world's population, causing immense loss of life and property due to the devastation it would create.

The Western Alliance and the Eastern Bloc countries competed with each other not only in military and political influence but also in all areas, including art, sports, literature, and science.

Although the Cold War appeared to be between the two states that caused its beginning, the United States and the Soviet Union, it affected all other countries. This article specifically examines the foreign policies pursued by these two countries.

The Cold War led states to pursue their own unique strategies. The superpower status of these two states brought about the Cold War. How the Soviet Union and the United States used their superpower status is a matter of curiosity. The policy pursued by the United States

during the Cold War was: learning from past mistakes and, to prevent potential wars, self-determination; that is, states determining their own future.

During the period 1823-1939, the United States generally isolated itself from the European state system. Since World War II, the American foreign policy system has created tension among other countries. Key words for American foreign policy were peace, opportunity, and democracy. The United States was not only a beacon of advanced democratic life but also a model of morality, honesty, and democracy in international relations. The United States pursued a peaceful and democratic state policy. The American diplomatic philosophy was: compromise of interests and isolation, avoiding contradictions. On the other hand, ideology was important for the Soviet Union leader. According to them, capitalism was the main obstacle to human freedom. For this reason, the Soviet Union viewed capitalist states as rivals. The information above describes the beginning and development of the Cold War. Let's delve a little deeper.

Before 1945, at the Quebec Conference, Winston Churchill and President Franklin believed that the Soviet Union would become a dominant power in post-war Europe. The West's efforts to sever ties with the Soviet Union, destroy it, and simultaneously redirect Adolf Hitler's threat from the West towards Russia were considered the fundamental reasons for hostility towards the Soviet Union. The details are clearly given above; now let's consider the consequences.

The Cold War emerged from the intersection of two superpowers. The leaders of both superpowers sought peace but never abandoned their ideologies. They protected their global interests through an open-door policy. The US implemented all its strategies to ensure its own security. The Soviets, on the other hand, pursued expansionist policies to spread their communist regime. Both states took the biggest steps towards becoming superpowers in the world. The US policy was to prevent Russian expansion from becoming a threat to itself. Therefore, the most frequently applied policy during the Cold War years was a policy of threat. The aim of this strategy was to protect the US's own security by maintaining a balance among other powers.

After the collapse of the Soviet Union, the United States became the sole superpower in the world. The reasons for this are the strategies it has pursued since the Cold War. This strategy

forms the basis of US foreign policy and continues to be maintained today. We see that the current US foreign policy has not changed much compared to the policies it pursued during the Cold War years. History constantly repeats itself, and similar events occur.

The shaping of the United States economy is influenced by its entry into Vietnam for political reasons, under the guise of securing peace, and the heavy material and moral defeat it suffered after the Vietnam War. This economic shaping can also be said to have been affected by the United States' involvement in Iraq. The withdrawal of US troops from Iraq undoubtedly created material and moral difficulties. Such events are also effects of the Cold War, or perhaps a reflection of it.

Following the end of the Cold War, starting in the 1970s, both sides began to communicate with each other in search of a more stable and predictable international system. During this period, open discussions emerged, with the limitation of strategic arms and the increasing influence of the United States and China against the Soviet Union. However, the period of international peace ended with the emergence of the Soviet Union and the Afghan War. The Soviet Union's attack on Korean Air and NATO's Able Archer 83 exercise increased tensions again.

The United States intensified its diplomatic, military, and economic pressure on the Soviet Union, which was experiencing economic stagnation. In the mid-1980s, the new Soviet leader Mikhail Gorbachev announced the liberalization reform packages known as glasnost and perestroika, thus ending the Soviet occupation of Afghanistan. Demands for national independence began to increase in the federation countries, especially in Poland. In 1989, the communist regimes in Central and Eastern Europe collapsed. The communist party ruling the Soviet Union also lost control. The Soviet Union officially disintegrated in December 1991, and the communist regimes in Mongolia, Cambodia, and South Yemen collapsed. The United States managed to remain the world's sole superpower, and the Cold War thus came to an end.

Khrushchev, Eisenhower, and De-Stalinization

Following the death of Josef Stalin in 1953, the Soviet leadership embarked on a process of de-Stalinization aimed at reducing internal repression and redefining party power. Nikita Khrushchev's speech at the 20th Congress of the Soviet Communist Party in 1956, later known as the "Secret Address," was one of the first official texts criticizing the mass arrests and executions of the Stalin era at the party level. Around the same time, US President

Dwight D. Eisenhower adopted the security doctrine known as the "New Look." The doctrine envisioned relying on nuclear deterrence and the capacity of the Strategic Air Command while limiting the defense budget, aiming to compensate for the reduction in the number of conventional forces. Thus, the two superpowers entered a new phase of competition based on balancing each other through nuclear arms while avoiding direct conflict.

The Warsaw Pact and the Hungarian Revolution

Following West Germany's accession to NATO in 1955, the Soviet Union and its Eastern European allies established the Warsaw Pact as a collective defense organization. This pact became the official framework for Soviet influence, reinforcing dependence on Moscow in the domestic politics of its members. During the 1956 Hungarian Revolution, an uprising that began in Budapest quickly spread throughout the country. In November 1956, Soviet troops intervened in the country with a large-scale operation, overthrowing the opposition government and re-establishing socialist rule. The US and its Western allies, despite strong protests, did not intervene militarily, setting an example of the de facto acceptance of the status quo within the Eastern Bloc.

The Rapacki Plan and the 1958–1959 Berlin Crisis

In 1957, Polish Foreign Minister Adam Rapacki presented a plan to the United Nations General Assembly that included the creation of a nuclear-free zone in Central Europe. The plan was based on the principle that Poland, Czechoslovakia, East Germany, and West Germany would not possess nuclear weapons and that no nuclear weapons would be deployed in these countries. NATO countries were wary of the proposal, arguing that it would weaken West Germany's deterrence and strengthen Soviet influence. In November 1958, Khrushchev issued an ultimatum demanding the termination of the Western Allies' occupation rights in West Berlin. Documents released by the US State Department show that the Berlin crisis of 1958–1961 developed as a three-year series of diplomatic tensions around the city's status and Western access. The crisis ended without a concrete compromise, despite the expiration of deadlines for withdrawal from West Berlin, but also without direct military conflict.

American military buildup

In the second half of the 1950s, the US expanded its global nuclear forces under the responsibility of the Strategic Air Command (SAC). With the deployment of jet bombers and

later intercontinental ballistic missiles, a nuclear force structure capable of being kept on constant alert was created. The Eisenhower administration linked this strategy both to the goal of limiting costs in the "New Look" doctrine and to making the threat of "mass retaliation" against Soviet nuclear capabilities credible.

Competition in the Third World

In the late 1950s and 1960s, the United States and the Soviet Union used economic aid, military cooperation, and ideological propaganda to gain influence in newly independent states in Asia, Africa, and the Middle East. The Eisenhower Doctrine envisioned deploying US military aid against threats stemming from "international communism" in the Middle East, attempting to fill the power vacuum in the region in favor of the West. In response, the Soviet Union increased its influence in the region by financing large infrastructure projects such as the Aswan Dam in Egypt and by signing arms deals.

Sino-Soviet Split

The Soviet-Chinese alliance, which began in the mid-1950s, turned into an open split in the early 1960s due to ideological differences, foreign policy priorities, and personal rivalry between Mao Zedong and Khrushchev. Disagreements between Moscow and Beijing focused particularly on nuclear strategy, the export of revolution, and the leadership of the world communist movement. The withdrawal of Soviet technical experts from China in 1960 is considered one of the symbolic starting points of the break between the two countries.

Space Race

Main article: Space Race

The Soviet Union's launch of Sputnik 1 into orbit on October 4, 1957, is considered the beginning of both the space age and the US–USSR space race. The US centralized its space program by establishing NASA in 1958 and began responding to Soviet successes through satellite, manned flight, and lunar programs.

After the Cuban Revolution

Following the 1959 Revolution, relations between Cuba under Fidel Castro and the United States rapidly deteriorated. While the Washington administration implemented economic sanctions and diplomatic pressure policies against the island, the Soviet Union provided Cuba with arms shipments and economic aid.

The new regime was supported. Thus, the Caribbean became one of the direct areas of contact in superpower competition.

The 1961 Berlin Crisis

In August 1961, the start of construction of the Berlin Wall by East German authorities was not only a step to restrict population movement in the city, but also the concretization of the political boundary between the East and West blocs. The historical summary prepared by the US State Department on the Berlin crisis emphasizes that the diplomatic dispute that began in 1958 escalated to the point where tanks faced each other at Checkpoint Charlie in 1961, although direct conflict was avoided.

The Cuban Missile Crisis and Khrushchev's removal from office

In October 1962, the Soviet Union's deployment of nuclear-tipped missiles in Cuba triggered the Cuban Missile Crisis, bringing the US and the Soviet Union to the brink of direct nuclear conflict. The crisis ended with the dismantling of Soviet missiles and the abandonment of US plans to invade Cuba, following intense diplomatic negotiations conducted through public notes and secret messages between leaders.

Vietnam War

Main article: Vietnam War

The Vietnam War was a long conflict between North Vietnam and South Vietnam from 1954 to 1975. North Vietnam wanted to unite the country under a single communist government, like those in the Soviet Union and China. South Vietnam, on the other hand, favored maintaining its alliance with the West. Following the French defeat in 1954, Vietnam was divided into Communist North Vietnam and Western-backed South Vietnam. The United States, fearing that communism would spread to other countries in Southeast Asia if it took hold in Vietnam, provided South Vietnam with money, weapons, and military training. This idea became known as the "domino theory." The US became involved in the conflict in the early 1960s. John F. Kennedy sent more military aid and personnel to South Vietnam. By 1969, there were more than 500,000 American troops in Vietnam. During the war, Vietnam's agriculture, trade, and industry suffered severe damage. Many parts of the country were devastated by bombs and mines. The US also experienced internal problems; the army suffered from low morale, and a deep division emerged within American society regarding the war. In 1973, the US began withdrawing its troops. In 1975, North Vietnam invaded South Vietnam, and the war ended with the fall of Saigon. Following this, the country was

reunified under communist rule. After the war, Vietnam embarked on a process of reconstruction. The war left lasting effects on both Vietnam and the United States.

Nuclear Tests and Outer Space Treaties

The 1963 Partial Nuclear Test Ban Treaty prohibited nuclear explosions in the atmosphere, space, and underwater, becoming one of the first major agreements between the US and the Soviet Union to limit nuclear risks. The 1967 Outer Space Treaty restricted the use of space for military purposes and prohibited the placement of nuclear weapons in Earth orbit.

The Invasion of Czechoslovakia

In August 1968, Soviet and Warsaw Pact forces militarily intervened in Czechoslovakia to halt the Prague Spring reforms. The Soviet news agency TASS claimed that some Czechoslovak government members and communist party leaders had requested assistance "to combat counter-revolutionary forces." However, in a secret radio address, Czechoslovak President Ludvík Svoboda described the invasion as "illegal" and stated that it was carried out without the government's consent. US President Lyndon Johnson stated that the invasion was a clear violation of the United Nations Charter and that the justifications put forward by the Soviet Union were "blatant fabrications."

Sino-Soviet Split and Nixon's Visit to China

As a result of the Sino-Soviet split, tensions on the Sino-Soviet border peaked in 1969; During this period, it was alleged that the Soviet Union was planning a large-scale nuclear attack against China. US President Richard Nixon intervened and decided to use this conflict to shift the balance of power in the Cold War in favor of the West through a policy of rapprochement with China. This process began with his visit to China in 1972 and culminated in the "Joint Declaration on the Establishment of Diplomatic Relations" signed in 1979 by President Carter and Chinese Communist Party leader Deng Xiaoping.

Nixon, Brezhnev, and Détente

In the early 1970s, the US and the Soviet Union began extensive negotiations on limiting strategic arms. The 1972 SALT I Treaty limited the capacity of both sides to possess ballistic missile systems and launch pads. The Anti-Ballistic Missile (ABM) Treaty, signed the same year, severely restricted the scale of strategic defense systems. This process led to the period

being described as "détente," during which the two superpowers aimed to reduce direct military competition and keep communication channels open.

Deterioration of relations in the late 1970s

Towards the end of the 1970s, the détente period began to weaken due to increased Soviet intervention and intensified regional conflicts. The US State Department stated that the 1979 invasion of Afghanistan "fundamentally undermined" trust between the two sides and that strategic relations returned to a cold competitive trajectory.

Re-emergence of tension (1979–1985)

Soviet Invasion of Afghanistan and the end of détente

Main article: Soviet intervention in Afghanistan

On December 24, 1979, Soviet troops launched a military intervention in Afghanistan due to internal political conflicts and the weakening of the pro-Soviet government. The US State Department stated that this intervention was considered "the moment the détente period ended." The US imposed economic sanctions against the Soviet invasion. The Moscow Olympics were boycotted and support was given to Afghan dissidents.

Reagan and Thatcher

See also: Margaret Thatcher and Ronald Reagan

Both Reagan and the new British Prime Minister Margaret Thatcher opposed the Soviet Union and they condemned its ideology. Reagan described the Soviet Union as an "evil empire" and predicted that Communism would be relegated to the "ashes of history."

Thatcher, meanwhile, accused the Soviets of "pursuing world domination." In 1982, Reagan attempted to block a planned Soviet natural gas pipeline to Western Europe to limit Moscow's access to foreign exchange earnings. This attempt harmed the Soviet economy but created discontent among European allies who needed the revenue stream. Ronald Reagan later backed down on this issue.

The Polish Solidarity Movement and martial law

In 1980, the Solidarity (Solidarność) movement, which emerged as a workers' organization in Poland, became the country's largest opposition movement amidst economic crisis, worker

strikes, and political deadlock. Pope John Paul II provided the focal point for anti-communism. His visit to his native Poland in 1979 triggered a religious and national revival that mobilized the opposition and shaped the Solidarity movement. In December 1981, Polish leader Wojciech Jaruzelski declared a period of martial law in response to the crisis. Reagan responded by imposing economic sanctions on Poland. Mikhail Suslov, the chief ideologue of the Soviet Union, advised Soviet leaders against intervening if Poland fell under the control of the Solidarity movement, fearing that this could lead to severe economic sanctions and a catastrophe for the Soviet economy.

The Military and Economic Problems of the US and the USSR

The Cold War period was characterized by an arms race, nuclear balance, propaganda, espionage, and competition for geopolitical influence between the two superpowers, avoiding direct armed conflict. This arms race led both countries to allocate large budgets to arms production and defense spending, limiting the allocation of resources to the civilian economy, consumer goods, or development. For the USSR in particular, the defense budget constituted a significant portion of its gross domestic product, negatively impacting economic growth and consumer goods production. In this context, the USSR's prioritization of heavy industry and military production led to resource shortages in civilian sectors such as consumer goods, agriculture, and services, resulting in a deterioration in the living standards of the population. Armament and defense spending, coupled with the already chronic problems of the centrally planned structure of the USSR economy, caused it to become increasingly constrained. Budget pressures and economic imbalances led the USSR to pursue economic and political reforms. However, these reforms (e.g., market mechanisms, removal of price controls) failed to bring about the necessary structural transformation, accelerating the country's decline. On the other hand, the high defense spending of the US led to budget pressures and resource allocation problems. Therefore, defense spending, in some periods, was restrictive for civilian investments and welfare state programs. As a result, the negative impact of the arms race on economic growth made long-term sustainable development difficult in both the US and the USSR.

Recent years (1985–1991)

Gorbachev reforms

When Gorbachev took over the leadership of the Communist Party in 1985, he initiated the perestroika (restructuring) policy. This policy, aimed at bringing the Soviet Union to the same

economic level as capitalist countries like Germany, Japan, and the United States, decentralized economic control and encouraged self-financing of enterprises. The program stipulated that product composition would be largely determined by managers, rather than planners, through negotiations with customers or wholesale trade institutions. The need for competition was explicitly acknowledged, and the goal was to create a competitive environment both among state-owned enterprises seeking customers and between them and newly legalized cooperatives. As a second vital element of his reform efforts, Gorbachev introduced glasnost (openness). This policy allowed for criticism of government officials and enabled the media to disseminate news and information more freely.

3.1 Department of State

MULLING over the governmental structure of the newborn United States, Thomas Jefferson went on record as favoring “little or no diplomatic establishment.” That wistful measure of the proper size for the U.S. State Department prevailed for more than a century. At the time when Secretary of State William Seward was boldly buying Alaska, he was head of an office with two assistants and 60 clerks. Secretary John Hay negotiated the Panama treaty and otherwise carried out Teddy Roosevelt’s active diplomacy on a departmental budget of less than \$190,000 a year. Before World War II, Cordell Hull used to sit in the draft of a somnolent fan for two or three hours of lonely reflection, then file a guideline dispatch to a dozen or so ambassadors and about 40 other men holding the now-almost-forgotten rank of minister as heads of the now-almost-forgotten kind of post called legation.

State is still no giant among bureaucracies—it is the second smallest department in personnel (after Labor) and budget (after Justice)—but it is now quite large enough to flabbergast Thomas Jefferson. From the seventh floor of a granite building of fluorescent-glaring corridors and scarred desks, Dean Rusk rules over 24,200 employees (down a bit from 1950) and a budget of \$383,948,000. State has 110 embassies, two legations (Hungary and Bulgaria), 68 consulates general and 84 consulates. Reporting to Rusk are two Under Secretaries, George Ball and Tom Mann, two deputy Under Secretaries, and no less than 16 Assistant Secretaries charged with varying responsibilities.

In the view of many, this far-flung organization works admirably. A top diplomat at Paris’ Quai d’Orsay says: “The State Department functions better than the Quai. It is a well-oiled

machine. The right things go to the right places.” U.S. consulates are widely praised for courtesy and efficiency. “If you want to know what’s going on anywhere in Africa, ask at the American embassy,” says a veteran European newsman who covers that continent. The American Legion, once prone to find State “soft on Communism,” last year investigated and concluded that “the nation can place much confidence” in the department. State’s people savor such compliments—because they have been accustomed to hearing memorably vivid criticism.

It was F.D.R.’s Harry Hopkins who pronounced State’s men to be “cookie-pushers, pansies—and usually isolationists to boot.” From a somewhat different point of view, Joe McCarthy called State “a nest of Communist traitors and Communist sympathizers.” More recently, the department has been metaphorically denounced as a “bowl of jelly” (President Kennedy), drowning not only in its “booze allowance” (Congressman John Rooney) but under a flood of paper work springing from “the bureaucratic necessity that everyone has to write so much to justify his existence” (Ambassador to Kenya William Attwood), while working under an overall policy based on “the lowest anti-Communist denominator” (Professor Hans Morgenthau) with a surplus of “pedestrian people” (former Ambassador James Gavin) headed by a Secretary with an “irrevocably conventional mind” (Arthur Schlesinger Jr.).

Some of these are well-aimed jabs, others petulant protests. Almost all are born of the frustrations inevitable to a nation that has undertaken a role of world leadership unprecedented in human history. State’s performance must be measured against that role in all its immensity and complexity, at a time when the dramatic diplomatic breakthrough is a thing of history, when success is forged from months and years of patient effort, when egregious failure could bring down the sky. It must be examined in the context of a nation that is history’s most powerful, yet is still reluctant to use its power. So, too, must State’s performance be considered in the light of its assigned functions, which are: representing the nation abroad, reporting to Washington, formulating policy and presenting it, with alternatives, to the President—the one man who has the actual power, and indeed the duty, of major decisionmaking.

The Foreign Service Elite

In its representational function, the State Department by general consensus rates high. Its ambassadors are able. Three-fourths of them are careermen, and of the political appointees, none are like the blundering, bottom-pinching misfits who have sometimes embarrassed the U.S. in the past. With the revolution of transportation and communication, ambassadors enjoy almost instant backup from Washington, which sometimes cuts into their freedom of action but also relieves them of weighty decision-making beyond their official competence. More often than an ambassador may like, someone senior to him (including the Secretary) may jet practically into his embassy's backyard. And when he picks up his phone, that voice on the other end may come across in a familiar Texas drawl.

The career ambassadors are the elite of the elite that is the U.S. Foreign Service, which has 3,750 officers chosen upon entry by tough oral, written, physical and psychological tests. About one-third hold advanced degrees. State makes an effort to get applicants from all over the U.S.; nonetheless, about three-fourths come from the Northeastern colleges in the blue blood tradition that in other years enlisted such foreign service pros as Ambassador to Czechoslovakia Outerbridge Horsey and Ambassador to Ecuador Wymberley DeRenne Coerr. The average FSO is 42 years old, earns \$13,000 a year, has served two-thirds of his career abroad, can speak at least one foreign language fluently.

The task of the foreign-service officer, and particularly of the ambassador, is complicated by the fact that U.S. embassies serve as headquarters for representatives from a multitude of other governmental agencies: the Central Intelligence Agency, AID, the Peace Corps, the U.S. Information Service and the military departments, to name only a few. As of last spring, 46,179 Americans were employed at overseas State Department posts; of these, 39,884 worked for agencies other than State. Forty-four different agencies are represented in the London embassy. Of 700 civilians in New Delhi last year, only 100 actually belonged to State. The ambassador is somehow supposed to coordinate the activities of all those within his mission. But often the agencies, as in the case of AID and the Peace Corps, have conflicting ideas about how to do the same job. The covert nature of the CIA makes morale

problems; in many embassies, staffers rightly or wrongly believe that one out of every three fellow workers is not what he purports to be.

The proliferation of other agency representatives irks State Department careermen. Says former Ambassador Ellis Briggs: “They clutter up the premises. In theory, the American ambassador is the captain of this team of untamed sportsmen. But it is not much use unless the captain has control over the players.” Yet the numbers simply reflect the essential interests that the U.S. has in the rest of the world, and State might just as well settle down with the situation. To the foreign-policy decisions that the President must make, the ingredients furnished by the Pentagon, the CIA, the economic cooperation agencies and others are often vital.

Good representation is more than official contact, of course. “Tenez bonne table et soignez les femmes,” Napoleon instructed his ambassador to London, and modern American diplomats also try to set a good table—with American wine, by order of L.B.J.—and to cultivate the ladies. The cocktail party, which all diplomats profess to hate from the bottom of their livers, is, “the milieu in which you must meet foreign colleagues,” says former Careerman Charles Thayer. Many parties, though, turn out to be ingrown gatherings of the embassy staff and local Americans.

A perennial embassy dilemma is how much its staffers should “get out”—travel the hinterlands, meet political figures (including those who oppose the U.S. position), businessmen and common people. The bureaucratic tradition against such activity is strong: the political officer of one African embassy forbids his four-man staff to leave the capital on the grounds that “there is too much to do in the office.” But—particularly in Southeast Asia—there is an increasing amount of diplomacy by Jeep, in which younger officers travel to villages, eat fried lizard, learn languages and customs, and represent the U.S. directly to the people.

A Flood of Reporting

“Ambassadors are the eyes and ears of states,” says the classic definition. This calls to mind some Rembrandtian statesman returning from a foreign court to whisper a few words of intelligence into the ear of a king. As expanded by the State Department, the job of reporting has thousands of bevested young officers obsessively sending millions of words to Washington. With his tongue only barely tucked in his cheek, Thomas A. Donovan, former U.S. consul in Iran, writes: “Background studies on such live topics as Recurrent Themes in the Bulgarian Press Treatment of the Black Sea as a Sea of Peace or Whither Thuringia: the Principality’s Progress Under the New Course are considered useful for filling the files at home.” In Paris, an embassy labor attache, leaving after four years, remarked ruefully that he doubted if anyone anywhere had really read one of his reports. The result is that communications break down under sheer volume. “We think the Americans here are in touch with reality and are accurately reporting our attitudes,” says an African leader. “But somehow we have a feeling that the message is not being delivered to the men at the top.”

Many a message does not get through simply because of obscure writing. The literary quality of State Department reports drove that lover of lucid language, John Kennedy, to distraction. A few ambassadors, it is true, are notable for their style, among them Ambassador to Britain David Bruce, Ambassador to Laos William Sullivan, and Ambassador to Kenya Attwood. “Their reports are so good,” says a member of the Policy Planning Council, “that people in the State Department look forward to reading them, and pass their cables around. As you would expect, their reports get action commensurate with the attention they get.” Attwood, a longtime professional journalist, was recently asked to write, for distribution within the department, a memo on how to write. “The best incentive for drafting a readable report,” it said, “is to assume that your readers are not terribly interested in what you have to say, and that you have to tell your story in such a way that they won’t be inclined to shove it aside.”

The Policy Function

By pouch, cable and phone, the reports pour into Washington; State’s “copy and distribute” section makes 70,000 copies a day. Some ambassadorial reports shoot right through to Secretary Rusk, like neutrons through a brick wall. Some are pigeonholed, perhaps to be of

use to businessmen or scholars. The bulk of the reporting is supposed to help, in small measure or large, to form U.S. foreign policy.

To this end the reports, often considerably hedged by their writers, are put through a process called “layering.” First, each goes to the appropriate “country desk,” made up of men whose business it is to know intimately the affairs of a given foreign nation. The country-desk men, followed by officers in higher echelons—regional, area, assistant secretarial, under secretarial—must successively judge whether the reported information is worth passing upward. The reports may at any level be edited, rewritten or combined into what George Kennan says is often “a hodgepodge inferior to any of the individual views of which it was brewed.” Other Government departments, most notably the Pentagon and the CIA, are drawn in. Great deliberation prevails; John Kennedy (as quoted by Schlesinger) complained that he and McGeorge Bundy could “get more done in one day at the

White House than they do in six months in the State Department.” Even Dean Rusk, while describing his administrative problems to be those “of any large organization,” fears that the system “leaves dangling vetoes all over town.”

When State’s distilling process works as it should, the best of the reporting lands on Rusk’s desk, and thereby reaches the top of the department’s globally based pyramid. His responsibility at this point is much misunderstood. Columnist James Reston, for example, took the department to task because it “has not developed for the President any guiding strategy of foreign policy or any order of priorities in that field.” To such criticism, Rusk says: “While Mr. Truman’s remark that ‘the President makes foreign policy’ is not the whole story, it serves very well if one wishes to deal with the matter in five words.” Rusk thinks it sufficient for him to call vital matters to Lyndon Johnson’s attention, to proffer alternatives, and to let the President decide.

The Man at the Top

Such a role precisely fits Dean Rusk’s personality. He has a quiet charm, exercised mostly in private; few find him brilliant, but on occasion, before an audience he deems especially

congenial or knowledgeable, he is remarkably illuminating. He gives the impression of being bland, and many of his admirers just wish he would lose his temper once in a while. He is a student of foreign affairs, not an innovator; a reflective man allowed little time for reflection by the pace of his present position.

“Sometimes,” Rusk has said, “it is better to do nothing than to do something simply for the sake of doing something.” He believes that U.S. foreign policy should stress reliability, not experimentation. “The United States has too much mass and momentum to be a hummingbird, darting in and out of alluring blossoms to see what nectar can be had for the whims of the moment,” he argues. “We owe it to ourselves as well as to the rest of the world to remain steady on course.”

Thus Rusk is a cautious man, and caution is king throughout the State Department. Rusk did not create the condition, he has merely compounded it. John Foster Dulles was a notable exception to the rule that a Secretary of State does not “make” foreign policy; with President Eisenhower’s approval, Dulles often acted out of his own mind and experience, and woe to the State Department underling who went against him. What Dulles personalized, Rusk has institutionalized; and the most common complaint within and without the State Department is that there is little room for the original thinker, the daring or dissenting mind.

Rusk’s Policy Planning Council, headed by a Kennedy favorite, Walt Whitman Rostow, has little influence. Of all major segments of U.S. foreign policy, only one can really be said to have been spawned by State—and that is the foundering plan for a multilateral nuclear force (MLF). When thrust into such crises as the Bay of Pigs invasion, the Cuban missile confrontation and the whole Vietnamese war, State has played a relatively passive part.

Moreover, there is a feeling throughout the State Department that boldness earns an excessive penalty if it miscarries. “The thing to do,” says a careerman in Leopoldville, “is fill the norm, do as you’re told, and above all, don’t make waves.” Veteran Diplomat W. Averell Harriman sums up the possible cost of such caution: “I have seen men’s careers set back and, in fact, busted because they held the right views at the wrong time, or for accurately reporting facts which were not popular at the time.”

To its activist critics, State undoubtedly is answerable to the charge of hewing too closely to Talleyrand's imperative: "Above all, not too much zeal." But considering the stakes involved, and the fine line between zealousness and foolhardiness, the men in the U.S. Department of State come rather close to the definition offered by Britain's Sir Harold Nicolson. "The worst kind of diplomatists are missionaries, fanatics and lawyers," he wrote, and certainly the U.S. has few of those. "The best kind," he went on, "are reasonable and humane skeptics." State's men stay reasonable and skeptical of hummingbird nectar.

3.2 Department of Defence

The United States Department of Defense (DoD) also referred to as the Department of War (DoW), is an executive department of the United States federal government charged with coordinating and supervising the United States Armed Forces—the Army, Navy, Marines, Air Force, Space Force, and, for some purposes, the Coast Guard—and related functions and agencies. Headquartered at the Pentagon in Arlington County, Virginia, just outside Washington, D.C., the stated mission of the Department of Defense is "to provide the military forces needed to deter war and ensure our nation's security".

The Department of Defense is headed by the secretary of defense, a cabinet-level official who reports directly to the president of the United States. The president is commander-in-chief of the U.S. Armed Forces. Within the Department of Defense are three subordinate military departments: the Department of the Army, the Department of the Navy, and the Department of the Air Force. In addition, four national intelligence services are part of the Department of Defense: the Defense Intelligence Agency, National Security Agency (NSA), National Geospatial-Intelligence Agency, and National Reconnaissance Office.

Other agencies in the Department of Defense include the Defense Advanced Research Projects Agency (DARPA), Defense Logistics Agency, Missile Defense Agency,

Defense Health Agency, Defense Threat Reduction Agency, Defense Counterintelligence and Security Agency, Space Development Agency and Pentagon Force Protection Agency. Additionally, the Defense Contract Management Agency is responsible for administering contracts for the Department of Defense. Military operations are managed by eleven regional or functional unified combatant commands. The Department of Defense also operates several joint services schools, including the Eisenhower School and the National War College.

As of November 2022, the department has over 1.4 million active-duty uniformed personnel in the six armed services, and over 747,000 civilian employees. It also supervises over 778,000 National Guard and reserve personnel. Faced with rising tensions between the Thirteen Colonies and the British government, one of the first actions taken by the First Continental Congress in September 1774 was to recommend that the colonies begin defensive military preparations. In mid-June 1775, after the outbreak of the Revolutionary War, the Second Continental Congress, recognizing the necessity of having a national army that could move about and fight beyond the boundaries of any particular colony, organized the Continental Army on 14 June 1775. Later that year, Congress would charter the Continental Navy on 13 October, and the Continental Marines on 10 November.

War Department and Navy Department

Main articles: United States Department of War and United States Department of the Navy

Upon the seating of the 1st U.S. Congress on 4 March 1789, legislation to create a military defense force stagnated as they focused on other concerns relevant to setting up the new government. President George Washington went to Congress to remind them of their duty to establish a military twice during this time. Finally, on the last day of the session, 29 September 1789, Congress created the War Department. The War Department handled naval affairs until Congress created the Navy Department in 1798. The secretaries of each department reported directly to the president as cabinet-level advisors until 1949, when all military departments became subordinate to the Secretary of Defense.

National Military Establishment

Seal of the Department of Defense with its statutory name

President Truman signs the National Security Act Amendment of 1949

After the end of World War II, President Harry Truman proposed the creation of a unified department of national defense. In a special message to the Congress on 19 December 1945, the president cited wasteful military spending and interdepartmental conflicts. Deliberations in Congress went on for months focusing heavily on the role of the military in society and the threat of granting too much military power to the executive.

On 26 July 1947, Truman signed the National Security Act of 1947, which "unified the Army and Navy within a single organization, the National Military Establishment, which was later renamed the Department of Defense." It established the National Military Establishment (NME) and created the National Security Council, National Security Resources Board, United States Air Force, and the Joint Chiefs of Staff.

The NME was placed under the control of the new post of secretary of defense.

The National Military Establishment formally began operations on 18 September, the day after the Senate confirmed James V. Forrestal as the first secretary of defense. The National Military Establishment was renamed the "Department of Defense" on 10 August 1949, and absorbed the three cabinet-level military departments, in an amendment to the original 1947 law.

Under the Department of Defense Reorganization Act of 1958 (Pub. L. 85–599), channels of authority within the department were streamlined while still maintaining the ordinary jurisdiction of the Military Departments to organize, train, and equip their associated forces. The Act clarified the overall decision-making authority of the secretary of defense concerning these subordinate military departments. It more clearly defined the operational chain of command over U.S. military forces (created by the military departments) as running from the president to the secretary of defense, the service chief of the unified combatant commanders, and then to the unified combatant commanders. Also provided in this legislation was a centralized research

authority, the Advanced Research Projects Agency, eventually known as DARPA. The act was written and promoted by the Eisenhower administration and was signed into law on 6 August 1958.

3.3 Cuban Missile Crisis

The Cuban Missile Crisis of October 1962 was a direct and dangerous confrontation between the United States and the Soviet Union during the Cold War, representing the closest the two superpowers came to nuclear conflict. The crisis was unique in many ways, including the calculations and miscalculations between the two sides, as well as direct and covert communication and miscommunication. The dramatic crisis was also characterized by the fact that it unfolded primarily at the White House and Kremlin level, with relatively little involvement from the bureaucracies typically involved in the foreign policy process.

Aerial view of the San Cristobal missile launch site in Cuba. (John F. Kennedy Library)

Following the failed Bay of Pigs invasion of Cuba to overthrow the Castro regime, and while the Kennedy administration was planning Operation Mongoose, in July 1962, Soviet Prime Minister Nikita Khrushchev struck a secret agreement with Cuban Prime Minister Fidel Castro to deploy Soviet nuclear missiles in Cuba to deter any future invasion attempts. Construction of several missile bases began in late summer, but U.S. intelligence, during routine surveillance flights, discovered evidence of a general Soviet arms buildup in Cuba, including Soviet IL-28 bombers, and on September 4, 1962, President Kennedy issued a public warning against the introduction of offensive weapons into Cuba. Despite the warning, on October 14, a U.S. U-2 aircraft took several photographs clearly showing bases for medium-range and short-range ballistic nuclear missiles (MRBMs and IRBMs) under construction in

Cuba. These images were processed and presented to the White House the following day, thus beginning the Cuban Missile Crisis.

Kennedy summoned his closest advisors to consider options for resolving the crisis and to formulate a plan of action for the United States. Some advisors, including all the Joint Chiefs of Staff, advocated for an air strike to destroy the missiles followed by a U.S. invasion of Cuba; others favored issuing strong warnings to Cuba and the Soviet Union. The President decided to pursue a middle course. On October 22, he ordered a naval "blockade" of Cuba. The use of the word "blockade" legally distinguished this action from a blockade presuming the existence of a state of war; furthermore, the use of "blockade" instead of "siege" ensured the United States' support for the Organization of American States.

That same day, Kennedy sent a letter to Khrushchev stating that the United States would not allow the delivery of offensive weapons to Cuba and demanding that the Soviets dismantle any missile bases already under construction or completed and return all offensive weapons to the USSR. This letter was the first in a series of direct and indirect communications between the White House and the Kremlin throughout the remainder of the crisis.

That evening, the President appeared on national television to announce the developments in Cuba, the decision to initiate and implement the "quarantine," and the potential global consequences if the crisis continued to escalate. The tone of the President's statements was harsh, and the message was clear and reminiscent of the Monroe Doctrine: "Any nuclear missile launched from Cuba against any country in the Western Hemisphere will be considered an attack by the Soviet Union against the United States, and a full retaliatory response will be given against the Soviet Union." As the U.S. Navy began enforcing the quarantine and plans for a military attack on Cuba accelerated, the Joint Chiefs of Staff declared the military readiness level DEFCON 3.

On October 24, Khrushchev responded to Kennedy's message with a statement declaring the U.S. "blockade" an "act of aggression" and ordering that Soviet ships bound for Cuba be cleared. However, on October 24 and 25, some ships turned back

from the quarantine line; others were stopped by U.S. Navy but allowed to proceed as they did not carry offensive weapons. Meanwhile, U.S. reconnaissance flights over Cuba indicated that Soviet missile bases were nearing operational readiness. With no apparent end to the crisis, U.S. forces were deployed to DEFCON 2 (meaning a war involving the Strategic Air Command was imminent). On October 26, Kennedy told his advisors that only a U.S. attack on Cuba could eliminate the missiles, but insisted on allowing some more time for diplomatic channels. The crisis had effectively reached a stalemate.

However, that afternoon the crisis took a dramatic turn. ABC News reporter John Scali reported that he had been approached by a Soviet agent who suggested that a deal could be reached if the Soviets withdrew their missiles from Cuba in exchange for the U.S. promising not to invade the island. While White House staff scrambled to assess the validity of this "back channel" offer, Khrushchev sent Kennedy a message on the evening of October 26; this message referred to Moscow.

It was sent at midnight, meaning it was a long, emotional message raising the threat of nuclear genocide and offering a solution quite similar to what Scali had reported earlier that day. "If there is no intention of condemning the world to the catastrophe of thermonuclear war," he said, "then let us not only loosen the forces pulling the strings, but also take measures to untie the knot. We are ready for that."

Although US experts were convinced of the sincerity of Khrushchev's message, the hope for a solution was short-lived. The following day, October 27, Khrushchev sent another message stating that any proposed agreement should include the removal of US Jupiter missiles from Türkiye. That same day, a US U-2 reconnaissance plane was shot down over Cuba. Kennedy and his advisors, while exploring remaining diplomatic solutions, prepared for an attack on Cuba within days. It was decided that Kennedy would ignore Khrushchev's second message and respond to the first. That night, Kennedy sent a message to the Soviet leader outlining proposed steps, including the removal of Soviet missiles from Cuba under United Nations supervision and a guarantee that the US would not attack Cuba.

Ignoring Khrushchev's second message was a risky move. Attorney General Robert Kennedy then secretly met with the Soviet ambassador to the US, Anatoly Dobrynin, and stated that the US was already planning to remove its Jupiter missiles from Türkiye and would do so soon, but that this could not be part of a public resolution of the missile crisis. The following morning, October 28, Khrushchev publicly announced that the Soviet missiles had been dismantled and removed from Cuba.

The crisis was over, but the naval blockade continued until the Soviets agreed to withdraw their IL-28 bombers from Cuba and the United States ended its blockade on November 20, 1962. The US Jupiter missiles were removed from Türkiye in April 1963.

The Cuban Missile Crisis stands out as a unique event of the Cold War era, strengthening Kennedy's image both domestically and internationally. It may also have helped mitigate the negative global perception surrounding the failed Bay of Pigs invasion. Two other significant consequences of the crisis manifested themselves in unique ways. First, despite—or perhaps because of—the intensity of direct and indirect communication between the White House and the Kremlin, Kennedy, Khrushchev, and their advisors struggled to clearly understand each other's true intentions as the world teetered on the brink of nuclear war. To prevent a recurrence, a direct telephone link was established between the White House and the Kremlin; this became known as the "Emergency Communication Line." Second, both superpowers, teetering on the brink of nuclear conflict, began to reassess the nuclear arms race and took initial steps toward a nuclear test ban treaty.

3.3.1 Operation Mongoose

Washington, DC, October 3, 2019 – When the Soviet Union put nuclear missiles in Cuba nearly 60 years ago, American officials refused to believe that at least one Soviet motivation was the defense of Cuba. But declassified U.S. documents published in the *Digital National Security Archive* (DNSA) confirm a series of sometimes frenetic covert operations ordered by the Kennedy White House and run by the CIA in those years to overthrow the Castro regime that in hindsight make Moscow's (and Havana's) concerns about defending the island much more credible.

Documents in the recently published DNSA collection, many of them first uncovered by the National Security Archive's Cuba Project, detail the discussions of highest-level decision groups such as the 5412 Committee and the Special Group (Augmented), the ramping up of covert operations after the April 1961 failure at the Bay of Pigs, the specific CIA and Pentagon plans for infiltrations, sabotage, espionage, and regime change, and the ultimate winding down of the program after the Cuban Missile Crisis. The evidence describes what Archive Senior Fellow John Prados terms the “disturbing” obsession of the Kennedy brothers with Cuba, and the disbursement of millions of dollars of CIA funds on raids by Cuban exiles.

President Kennedy’s anger after the Bay of Pigs, where he considered he had been inadequately advised during the months before the abortive invasion, has long served to disguise the pursuit of continued covert operations against Cuba. The investigations and reviews Kennedy ordered were the visible feature of his administration’s policy. There is a body of literature on Operation *Mongoose*, the next big anti-Cuba effort, but the available record has been incomplete and limited. Declassified documents now permit us to present Operation *Mongoose* in much more complete detail. The documents explain not only the command guidance for the Cuba operation, they show how and why the United States eventually backed away from *Mongoose*.

Most people who know of *Mongoose* associate it with Air Force officer Edward G. Lansdale, who became involved as the Pentagon’s task force leader in November 1961. This leaves out the important fact that operations against Cuba continued throughout the period. The day after Castro’s troops rounded up the last of the CIA’s Cuban exile brigade, April 20, the CIA had a commando unit of 35 exiles, a dozen agents or radio operators ready to infiltrate, 170 recruits who had not left the United States, and 26 agents in Cuba, most in the Havana region, with whom the agency still had contact. The black propaganda unit “Radio Swan” continued its broadcasts, while CIA programming got air time across Latin America and even on several Florida stations.

President Kennedy personally briefed his predecessor, Dwight D. Eisenhower, on April 22, admitting problems with the CIA operation. That same day, at a National Security Council (NSC) meeting, the president’s brother, Robert F. Kennedy, fiercely criticized advice given to the president prior to the invasion. On May 6 the NSC “agreed that U.S. policy toward Cuba should aim at the downfall of Castro,” with President Kennedy ordering the CIA to make a detailed study of possible Cuban weaknesses and vulnerabilities. The deputy director of plans

of the CIA (that is, the senior leader for covert operations) held a follow-up meeting May 9 where he discussed supporting Cuban exile groups' independent operations against the Cuban government. The first CIA plan for its own operations would be submitted on May 19. On May 24 CIA Director Allen W. Dulles discussed, in general, covert operations approvals by the interagency 5412 Special Group, and learned that senior CIA officials Richard M. Bissell and C. Tracy Barnes were to meet that very day with White House aide Richard N. Goodwin to discuss a 5412-type operation against Cuba

The Cuban exiles came up again at a 5412 Group meeting on June 8, when Director Dulles sought guidance on what support to give to exile political groups, which it was subsidizing at a level of \$90,000 per month (\$773,000 in 2019 dollars). The next day an internal CIA memorandum discussed these requirements but went beyond that to consider base facilities for Cuban operations, sabotage schools, and acquisition of a new mother ship to facilitate missions. Presidential adviser Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr. took a dim view of the CIA plan in a memorandum to White House colleague Goodwin on July 8. Schlesinger saw the CIA as recruiting exiles to suit its own "operational convenience" rather than figures who could build the political strength to oust Castro, thus favoring "mercenaries" and "reactionaries" associated with the former dictatorial regime of Fulgencio Batista, discriminating "against those groups most eager to control their own operations." Despite these criticisms the CIA plan would be presented to the 5412 Group on July 20, providing a \$13.8 million budget for Fiscal Year 1962 (\$117.8 million in 2019). Langley trimmed that amount slightly, then State Department officials cut it to \$5.3 million before sending the paper to President Kennedy. The text received minor revisions prior to forwarding to higher authority, with the secret warriors standing by for the result.

The Kennedy administration had been quick to set up a Cuba Task Force—with strong representation from CIA's Directorate of Plans—and on August 31 that unit decided to adopt a public posture of ignoring Castro while attacking civilian targets inside Cuba: "our covert activities would now be directed toward the destruction of targets important to the Cuban economy". Refineries and plants using U.S. equipment were mentioned specifically. While acting through Cuban revolutionary groups with potential for real resistance to Castro, the task force "will do all we can to identify and suggest targets whose destruction will have the maximum economic impact." The memorandum showed no concern for international law or the unspoken nature of these operations as terrorist attacks. On October 5 the White House issued National Security Action Memorandum (NSAM) 100, requiring a plan for what to do

if Castro were removed from leadership, and the 5412 Group executive secretary asked CIA's Tracy Barnes for an up-to-date report on program status, which the agency delivered a week later. Agency planners anticipated beginning infiltration operations plus possible sabotage within 30 to 60 days. In the meantime, perhaps pursuant to NSAM-100, JFK himself had a conversation with journalist Tad Szulc in which the president startlingly asked Szulc's opinion of the idea of Kennedy ordering Castro's assassination.

All of this took place before November 1, when Richard Goodwin wrote to Kennedy recommending a "command operation," a program conducted from an even higher level than the CIA. President Kennedy accepted Goodwin's advice, and on November 30 issued orders creating a new Cuba-oriented unit of the 5412 Group, the Special Group (Augmented), as well as the "command operation" itself. This became the basic directive for Operation *Mongoose*. The order also specified that Edward Lansdale would lead the project from his post at the Pentagon.

With Edward Lansdale's prodding, activities began to accelerate. An initial meeting of the Special Group (Augmented) SG (A) took place on December 1. Bobby Kennedy took the lead, asserting a role he would continue through the operation. He emphasized that President Kennedy wanted higher priority given to Cuba and that the Special Group would be in charge with Lansdale as chief of operations. The meeting instructed Lansdale to prepare a plan. The SG (A) further set up a Caribbean Survey Group composed of the action officers of each of the participating agencies, to specify the roles each agency would play in the operation as it unfolded. A Lansdale memo to Brigadier General William Craig is representative of the initial planning.

General Lansdale felt the CIA's project had been misguided, focused on armed raids rather than actions to implant a popular movement that could overthrow Castro. He wanted the agency to use its fleet of seven boats on infiltration and exfiltration missions, attempting to build intelligence nets and resistance groups in Cuba. Lansdale saw potential for using the underworld, the Church, women, labor, students and other groups as part of the operation. The Special Group (Augmented) accepted the concept, on January 11, 1962 ordering the chief of operations to prepare detailed plans. Lansdale responded on January 18 with a more detailed elaboration of his plan, which, while not going much beyond the creation of an operational staff, did lay out 32 "tasks," with deadlines, for assorted agencies to plan for and bring to his staff. Half the tasks were allotted solely or jointly to the CIA. Langley promised to have plans for sabotage, psychological warfare and labor action ready by February 15.

These measures resulted in a detailed plan which General Lansdale put forward on February 20 . This elaborate schema divided *Mongoose* into six “phases” to last into October 1962, moving to guerrilla operations around August and open revolt in the final phase. Like an escalation ladder the phases started with intelligence gathering, then more strenuous actions. Dozens of individual elements were involved, comprising eight different action subplans. Some were to insert pathfinder agents or establish a clandestine headquarters, or work slow-downs, even sabotage. The SG thought the Lansdale plan a good start. The next day Robert F. Kennedy convened the Lansdale staff plus CIA Deputy Director Marshall S. Carter. The president’s brother told the group that the Cuba covert operation had become the highest priority of the United States. *Mongoose* might have been a priority but there was still a matter of capability. The CIA’s little fleet of boats might infiltrate a few people but it was not up to a massive campaign. The two big “Landing Craft Infantry” (LCIs) that had participated in the Bay of Pigs invasion were renamed, given a new corporate cover, and added to the *Mongoose* fleet. The agency’s station in Miami, JM/WAVE, expanded rapidly. Robert Davis headed the station at first, followed by Albert L. Cox. William K. Harvey led the CIA’s operational task force. An interrogation center at Opa Locka, Florida, at first promised for mid-February, opened a month late. Harvey had doubts on his station chief’s performance. He sent Theodore Shackley, an officer who had previously worked with Harvey in Berlin, to Miami to look at what JM/WAVE might need. Harvey then engineered Shackley’s appointment as chief of operations in Miami, and Shackley later replaced Cox as station chief.

On March 12, 1962, Team *Cobra* infiltrated the Cuban province Pinar del Rio. Mariano Pinto Rodríguez and Luis Puig Tabares set up shop at Cienfuegos, where Rodríguez had been a public prosecutor and Tabares the Belgian consul. The CIA used Belgian diplomatic pouches to smuggle spy gear into Cuba for the *Cobra* operatives. This became the most successful *Mongoose* infiltration, creating a network of almost 100 agents, operating through the second half of 1963, and even creating a supply line for an armed group (the Cuban government called them “bandits”) in Las Villas province.

In June the spy team AM/Torrid went into Oriente. Cuban state security officer Fabián Escalante records that the team left Key West on May 28 and landed in Oriente on June 4 on the beach of Playa Arroyo la Costa. Led by Joaquín Escandón Ranedo, the team included Pedro A. Cameron Pérez, Luis Nodarse, Radamés Iribar Martínez and Rafael Bonno Ortiz. Escandón exfiltrated on June 12 to report to JM/WAVE. In August the others were recalled too. Escalante frames this action as preparation to form a guerrilla force, and reports the CIA

promised the *Torrid* team enough weapons to arm 5,000 partisans. In November, Cameron Pérez and another operative returned to the same area of Oriente.

But the sense remained that the ground had not been prepared for the rapid-fire operation Lansdale envisioned. Other complaints came from Lansdale's *Mongoose* staff at the Pentagon or from the CIA officers laboring on the project. The armed services were slow to provide promised assistance. The high command, the Special Group (Augmented), chaired by General Maxwell D. Taylor, imposed conditions that straight-jacketed field operations. The permissions, the standing orders, the Special Group's own delays, all hampered the project. Thomas Parrott, the SG (A)'s executive secretary, told Richard Helms, who was CIA's point man for Cuba operations, that Taylor was a "dead hand" on the switch.

On March 14, 1962, *Mongoose* was modified. Instead of six phases succeeding one another, it would now focus on gathering intelligence in an initial phase, and then get SG (A) approval to move ahead. The Lansdale schedule was simply too ambitious. The CIA needed to expedite its preparations for intensified activity. President Kennedy sat with the SG (A) two days later and pronounced himself satisfied with the revised plan. Colonel Lansdale was restive under the restrictions. He, Harvey, Shackley, and others deplored the level of detail the high command demanded. At the end of the month the State Department actually brought an array of leaders of Cuban exile political groups to the White House, where they met with national security adviser McGeorge Bundy. The Cuban exiles were gratified at U.S. government backing, and happy with their CIA money, but they, too, were unhappy with the lack of action.

This remained the situation into late July, when Washington authorities stepped back to review the achievements of Phase I Lansdale, author of the review, took pride in that *Mongoose* had become the largest U.S. intelligence effort inside a communist state in the world. The report however made it clear that there was little to show for all the resources spent on psychological warfare efforts had had mixed results and the two political actions undertaken so far had failed. On infiltration, the CIA expected 11 teams to have been inserted by the end of July—but 19 maritime missions had aborted. Agency operations had planted four supply caches in Cuba and completed a single 1,500-pound supply mission. CIA had plans for sabotage but any carried out so far had been sparked by the Cuban exiles directly, not the agency. Lansdale expressed concern that time was running out for accomplishing the main goal of overthrowing Fidel Castro.

The *Mongoose* chief of operations, in addition to his review, used agency submissions to assemble a new contingency plan, issued at the end of July 1962. The new plan assumed an open revolt in Cuba and a U.S. decision for military intervention. While of no operational significance, the Lansdale plan illustrated the impatience of the secret warriors. Leaders met in the JCS Operations Room on August 8 and 9, and at the State Department on August 10. The issues built to a peak at the August 10 SG (A) meeting. This session included discussion of liquidating Fidel Castro, reportedly raised by Robert McNamara.

At Langley William Harvey prepared a new operational “Plan B+,” also known as “Stepped Up Course B” or “Alternate Course B” , containing the most detailed action program yet proposed. The Special Group (Augmented) considered the plans, asking for revisions. On August 16 the SG (A) met to discuss the latest proposals, on the 20th President Kennedy approved them. The revised plan anticipated increasing CIA personnel involved to over 600, conducting training at several Army-run sites, five submarine missions a month, increasing to ten in 1963, and a robust infiltration schedule with sabotage missions included. On August 23 Kennedy issued NSAM-181, prefiguring what became the Cuban Missile Crisis. The directive also provided that *Mongoose Plan B* should be developed with all possible speed.

The secret warriors were in mid-process when they were stunned by outside events. One of the options General Lansdale had included in his July review was to support Cuban exile groups to fight Castro independently of the CIA operation. On August 24 the exiles showed themselves perfectly capable of independent action. Knowing that Soviet and Czech advisers to Castro lived at a Havana hotel, the Student Revolutionary Directorate (DRE) decided to raid on a Friday night, when the advisers often partied there. Jose Basulto of the DRE bought a camera at a pawnshop to record the action, and a half dozen exiles crammed a speedboat with a couple of .50-caliber machine guns, a 20mm cannon, and a recoilless rifle. Manuel Salvat led the raid, which took place late at night. The boat entered Havana harbor past Morro Castle and turned west toward Miramar. Salvat pulled up about 200 yards from the target. At 11:20 PM they began a cannonade that lasted for seven minutes. The DRE had already booked a spokesman onto a New York radio station to claim credit. In the stormy Washington aftermath the agency’s case officer to the DRE, Ross Crozier, would be moved to another assignment.

DRE’s raid, so to speak, put a marker in the sand. The basic dilemma from the beginning of U.S. operations against Castro was the question of whether to pursue Castro with a *CIA* operation—that is a U.S. covert action—or with a *Cuban exile* operation in which the United

States gave assistance but did not call the shots. The Cuban groups morphed on a regular basis as their internal politics and personal interests affected the leadership. After the Havana hotel raid, for example, some of the more militant exiles formed a new group they called Alpha-66. Former leaders of Assault Brigade 2506, back from Castro's prisons, told CIA in June 1963 that they favored a massive U.S. military intervention to overthrow Castro. But starting with the DRE raid in 1962 more Cuban exile groups, including additional splinter factions, began taking the field independently regardless of CIA instructions.

Special Group (Augmented), the Lansdale staff, CIA director John McCone and William Harvey's Task Force W all redoubled efforts to create a feasible operations plan against Cuba.

Lansdale looked at Harvey's Alternate Course B, with its set of covert operations tasks. On September 4 he put in a memorandum that expressed doubts about policy problems, listing them by Harvey's numbers. State Department lawyer Abram Chayes contributed a paper which objected strenuously to efforts to sabotage the Cuban sugar crop with chemical agents. Fortunately this idea was dropped. Just before a Special Group (Augmented) meeting a couple of days later, executive secretary Thomas Parrott wrote to Mac Bundy regarding Lansdale's doubts, concurring in them, and adding a few more numbered items to the problem list. At the SG (A) meeting the principals went ahead to discuss the CIA operational tasks by number (Document 15, two versions of the same record). Many of the covert tasks mentioned as policy problems were acceptable to the SG members. The contemplated measures ranged up the spectrum to the use of chemical and biological weapons.

Despite the tough talk, actual operations continued to lag. Bobby Kennedy pushed again at an SG session on October 4, telling the group that his brother the president worried about the meager results from *Mongoose*. William Harvey then sent Lansdale an options and target list. Harvey proposed striking maritime targets for the first time, even mining ports. Hit-and-run strikes might include Soviet Bloc ships. A target list of thirty-three facilities inside Cuba, from public works to broadcast communications to port facilities, aimed to cripple the Cuban economy. Marshall Carter sent the SG a paper proposing eight potential covert attacks, including a grenade strike on the *Chinese* embassy in Havana.

All of this palaver would be overtaken by events. On October 14, even as *Mongoose* planners fleshed out next steps, an Air Force U-2 high altitude reconnaissance plane took photographs of Soviet medium- and intermediate-range missile sites under construction in Cuba. This intelligence ushered in the Cuban Missile Crisis. Suddenly not only would the

intelligence community be drawn off to support President Kennedy's decisionmaking in the crisis, but American officials took note of a massive Russian military buildup in Cuba, not just missiles but aircraft and thousands of troops. That put a different light on planned *Mongoose* raids. Much later, historians would learn, the Soviet troops numbered more than 40,000. Faced with a possible nuclear confrontation with the Russians, the president put his efforts into devising a way to head off a war and get Moscow to withdraw their rockets. A concern was that covert CIA attacks on Cuba might well strike the Russians as provocations. Yet, one CIA mission, to attack the copper mine at Matahambre, nonetheless took place during the Missile Crisis. The commando team was not recovered. Later investigation established that a series of missed signals plus the climate of pushing for results had allowed the Matahambre raid, previously postponed, to go forward even as the Missile Crisis unfolded

The SG grappled with this while the Missile Crisis was in full swing. In a televised national speech on October 22, President Kennedy revealed he knew of the Russian missiles, declared a quarantine of Cuba, and announced other measures designed to back down Moscow. Robert F. Kennedy, who had been among the most aggressive proponents of *Mongoose*, sobered up in the course of helping his brother head off an even more serious crisis. With potential war looming, it turned out the *Mongoose* goals had yet to come into focus, as a point paper for SG (A) members observed on October 26 (The point paper made clear that, while several teams were on their way to Cuba, CIA had little or no capability to carry out many of the assignments it had been given.

With this uncertainty at the top, JM/WAVE had 20 infiltration teams ready to leave for Cuba. Station chief Shackley warned headquarters his operatives were primed to go. If they did not receive definitive orders in the next days there could be an explosion in Miami. At Langley, Bill Harvey forwarded the message to General Lansdale. The *Mongoose* chief received this hot potato after three of Shackley's infiltration teams had already left. Exile Rafael Quintero telephoned Robert Kennedy's office for assurances. Bobby went to Langley and denounced the Task Force W staff and wrested from them a stand-down. The SG (A) met on October 29 . RFK, horrified—the Missile Crisis had just reached a crescendo with the shootdown of a U.S. U-2 spyplane over Cuba combined with a hopeful exchange of messages between President Kennedy and Soviet leader Nikita Khrushchev—strode into the Special Group session to demand a shutdown of operations. On October 30 Director McCone forwarded

President Kennedy's order to abandon missions against Cuba , including the president's demand that CIA rein in Cuban exile groups over which it had no direct control.

Agency operatives were restive in the face of the stand-down. In particular they wanted to sustain their prize spies, the teams *AM/Torrid*, in Oriente province since June 1962; and *Cobra*, in Pinar del Rio since March. On December 7 CIA operations chief Richard Helms wrote Director McCone warning of the imminent need to recover or resupply these teams, meaning CIA needed a waiver of the Cuba stand down. The Helms request and papers he attached to it are the most explicit CIA claims for the achievements of its *Mongoose* agents.

Director McCone decided on a shake-up of the Cuba operation. Task Force W would be de-activated, with William Harvey sent to Rome as station chief there. For someone who knew the CIA's inner workings and had sufficient stature to overawe the field officers he turned to Desmond FitzGerald, head of the agency's Far East Division. The Cuba operational unit would be retitled the Special Affairs Staff. President Kennedy similarly revamped his Cuba initiative. Project *Mongoose* would be phased out, as Ed Lansdale acknowledged in January 1963 . With its demise the Special Group (Augmented) also disappeared. Kennedy reassigned the Cuba mission to an NSC "Standing Group," also sometimes called the "ExCom" in the style of the Cuban crisis NSC unit, chaired by security adviser McGeorge Bundy.

One of Desmond FitzGerald's first initiatives was to go to Miami, where he tried to impose greater discipline. JM/WAVE should control its Cuban émigré groups more tightly, and, meeting the groups themselves, the CIA man argued they should resist taking actions not coordinated with the Americans. FitzGerald encouraged other U.S. authorities—local police, FBI, Customs, Immigration, and so on—to hem in the exiles by stricter enforcement of U.S. laws. The exiles flouted restrictions. An Alpha-66/Second Front of the Escambray joint mission launched a more controversial raid in March 1963. On the 17th their craft attacked the Soviet freighter *Lgov* in Cuban waters. On the 26th an Alpha-66 splinter group, Lambda-66, attacked the Soviet ship *Baku* by boat in the Cuban port of Caibarién. In both cases the exiles had spokesmen ready to claim credit—and to assert U.S. laws were no impediment. In the Caibarién attack the raiders brought a *Life* magazine photographer with them. The Soviet Union filed diplomatic protests in both cases, including noting that the United States had laws prohibiting the very things the Cubans were doing. British authorities apprehended one of the Cuban exile craft and captured some of the participants who were camping on the Bahamian island of Anguilla, where they had accessed a CIA arms cache. Anguilla was British territory.

These attacks triggered a new series of deliberations at the top of the U.S. government and marked a turning point in the anti-Castro program. Secretary of State Dean Rusk declared in a letter and told an NSC meeting on March 29, 1963, that Cuban exiles' hit-and-run raids had caused incidents that worked to disadvantage U.S. national interests (**Document 25**). The United States needed to disassociate itself from the exile groups. Only authorized raids should be conducted. John McCone was prepared to tolerate the raids although he had mixed feelings about them. Within the NSC staff feelings also ran high. Gordon Chase, the staffer responsible for intelligence matters, explained to Latin America adviser Ralph Dungan on April 1 the need for public relations action, since the U.S. government's initial reaction to news of the Caibarién raid had been to deny it had been mounted from American soil but *Life* magazine photos could prove that it was. (White House officials did not know that the photographer, Andrew St. George, had become ill and stayed behind at the exile base on Anguilla, and so had not witnessed the actual raid.)

On April 3 President Kennedy gathered the high commanders of the secret war to decide how to proceed. Desmond FitzGerald admitted hit-and-run raids were doing little more than pump up morale among the exiles. Kennedy said he did not mind that, it was the incessant press conferences. McGeorge Bundy noted the old Special Group (Augmented) had decided the raids were not worth the effort. Robert Kennedy wondered whether bigger attacks, using 100-500 men instead of a handful, could accomplish more. The administration's response, predictably, drove another spike into the Cuba program. The United States issued a statement affirming its observance of laws, which meant a crackdown on the Miami Cubans. President Kennedy, who had previously told the secret warriors that his promise to the Russians, in resolving the Missile Crisis, never to invade Cuba, did not mean there could not be covert operations, now implied to Moscow that CIA activity would be restrained. And Kennedy invited Henry Luce, the Time-Life Corporation publisher, to lunch at the White House.

At the operational level, secret warriors had no doubt about the situation. Operations chief FitzGerald sent a paper to Director McCone on April 12 predicting that anti-Castro elements inside Cuba would be seriously disheartened and there would be demoralization among the Miami Cubans. Some might leave to pursue operations against Castro—in fact former Bay of Pigs leader Manuel Artime Buesa had his first contacts with Nicaraguan dictator Anastasio Somoza about hosting a new anti-Castro armed force in his country at exactly this time. Other Miami Cubans might find it an even greater badge of honor to defy the U.S. laws. As for

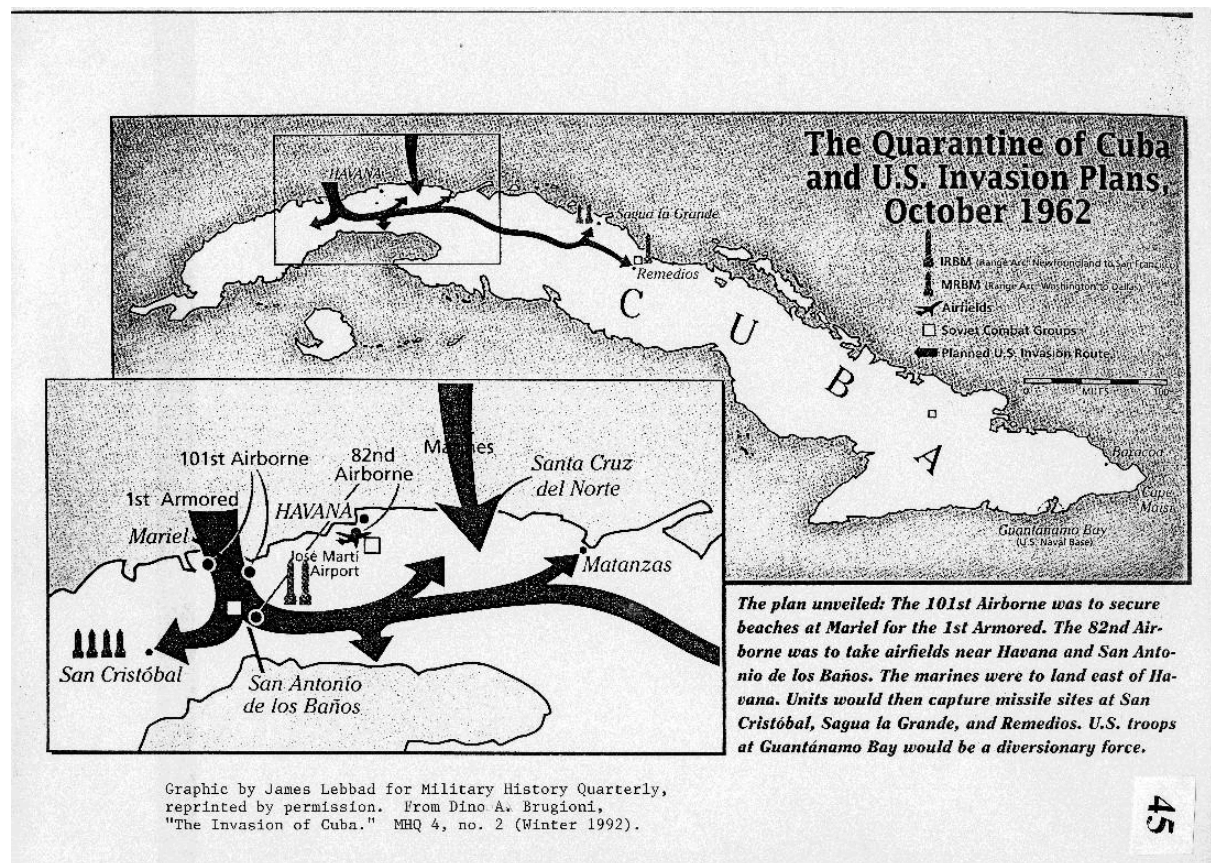
Castro himself, he would feel some relief at a reduced scale of attacks but wonder what else the CIA had up its sleeve.

The anti-Castro covert operations were also impacted by political infighting among the exile groups. A basic umbrella group, the Cuban Revolutionary Council (CRC), became a conflict center and at this time the disputes led to the resignation of José Miró Cardona, who had been a political leader of the anti-Castro Cubans since before the Bay of Pigs. Doing double duty, on April 13, Desmond FitzGerald supplied Director McCone with a paper concluding that Miró Cardona's usefulness to the U.S. had come to an end. Despite \$3 million in CIA support to CRC since May 1961 (about \$252 million in 2019), under Cardona it had accomplished little. Succeeding months and years would see Miró Cardona competing with Artime for Latin American leaders' backing of a new anti-Castro operation.

In this climate of increasing doubt, the CIA proposed a new, integrated sabotage/harassment program aimed at Castro. The 5412 Group, the covert operations approval authority that had predated and subsumed the Special Group (Augmented), discussed the new plan on April 11. Mr. Bundy told the members the plan had more or less been developed at the direction of higher authority. The president sought to get a feel for CIA capabilities and what might be expected from a series of activities. Kennedy did not intend to approve specific operations at this point. The draft plan was the most comprehensive since the *Mongoose* series of 1962. Director McCone, perhaps hoping to not repeat the same mistakes made during Mongoose, was reluctant to support the plan until Washington had devised a full strategy for Cuba, not only to topple Castro but to get the Soviets out too. On April 15 the CIA director flew to Palm Beach, where President Kennedy was vacationing, to brief current intelligence issues. Their conversation included an exchange on the draft plan where McCone repeated his opposition to the operation. Kennedy himself expressed preference for covert operations that came from within Cuba, whereupon Director McCone pointed out that all the operations mentioned in the draft plan were maritime missions from outside Cuba.

From this point on the wheels began to come off the Cuba operation. On April 21, 1963, McGeorge Bundy reacted to 5412 Group demands for a comprehensive strategy with a paper sketching Cuba alternatives. The CIA provided options to the NSC Standing Group on April 30, and the 5412 Group approved a program on May 24. By June 8 Desmond FitzGerald had converted the April draft plan into an integrated action program. It would be approved. Money would be given to Manuel Artime for a new brigade project. A certain number of actual raids were carried out. The White House expressed satisfaction with some in August,

and frustration with others in September, when leaks again bedeviled action. Just days before his murder, President Kennedy met with CIA officers to review the Cuba operation and approve the next batch of targets. On December 19 the secret warriors had their first meeting with President Lyndon Baines Johnson on Cuba operations. LBJ opined that sabotage missions with less than a 50 percent chance of success should be cancelled. From May 1964 on, Johnson progressively cut back the Cuba enterprise.



3.3.2 The 1963 Succession

In 1963, President John F. Kennedy was preoccupied with issues such as Vietnam, nuclear test ban negotiations, civil rights protests, and Cuba. But a lesser-known fact was the continuing concern about any Israeli nuclear weapons capability and how quickly it could spread and what the U.S. could do about it. Beginning in April 1963, Kennedy insisted that the Israeli administration allow regular, twice-yearly U.S. inspections or simulations of the Israeli nuclear complex at Dimona in the Negev Desert. Prime Minister David Ben-Gurion and his successor Levi Eshkol tried to avoid and block these inspections, but Kennedy, in an unprecedented move, passed pressure, almost in an ultimatum tone, stating that Washington's

"commitment and support to Israel" could be "seriously jeopardized" if U.S. could not obtain "reliable information" about Dimona expenditures and Israeli nuclear spending.

The complete correspondence between Kennedy, Ben-Gurion, and Eshkol, as revealed today for the first time by the National Security Archives, exposes both Kennedy's resolve and the Israeli government's funding of the Dimona affair. Eshkol, stunned by the firm resolve of the U.S., reluctantly gave his approval after a tense seven-week period of internal consultations. His withdrawal, which nearly turned into a crisis, was followed by the conduct of bilateral communications regarding the Dimona affair in great secrecy.

Today, the U.S. National Archives is releasing declassified reports, including presidential programs, offering a glimpse into the decision-making and intelligence review process that shaped Kennedy's pressure on Israeli prime ministers in 1963. Among the documents is:

National Intelligence Estimate 30-63, "The Arab-Israeli Problem," dated January 1963, which estimated that Dimona, "if operating at maximum capacity... could produce enough plutonium for one or two weapons a year." This National Intelligence Estimate was declassified in 2017.

A letter from a U.S. diplomat in Tel Aviv stating that "a dozen or so senior scientists were read quite carefully" to ascertain Israel's decision to launch its "emergency" nuclear program. This document was declassified in 2018.

A memorandum from the State Department supporting a two-year inspection show to monitor the state of nuclear fuel at Dimona. Without U.S. inspections, Israel could discharge used fuel at six-month intervals with the aim of "recording the maximum amount of irradiated fuel to be decayed into weapon-grade plutonium."

Kennedy's review to French Foreign Minister Couve de Murville, stating that Israel's nuclear program had fallen into a "foolish" state in that country and that it "provided a consulting service to the retreating Russians in the region for the world to calculate, and perhaps this was not without reason."

A meeting transcript from August 1963; A British diplomat reported that Israel's official interest in possessing nuclear weapons contained "new disturbing signs." Declassified in 2016.

Detailed report on the US inspection of Dimona in January 1964, which resulted from Kennedy's pressure on Ben-Gurion and Eshkol.

Some of the documents included in today's article, such as the Kennedy-Ben-Gurion-Eshkol correspondence, were declassified in US or Israeli archives in the 1990s, but were not widely accessible. Others, like those mentioned above, were declassified in recent years. Moreover, the French translation of Kennedy's Couve de Murville statement had never been translated into English before. Other documents relating to the Ben-Gurion/Kennedy conflict remain classified in the US National Archives. Important CIA and intelligence resolutions are in the cooling-off phase or awaiting declassification.

Viewing nuclear proliferation as a major threat to American power, John F. Kennedy firmly believed that the United States should use its influence to prevent Israel from acquiring nuclear weapons. The Dimona reactor had been discovered just two months before he took office in January 1961, and Kennedy already harbored deep concerns about Israel's nuclear ambitions (for details see "Kennedy, Dimona, and the Nuclear Proliferation Problem: 1961–1962" in National Security Archive Electronic Briefing Book No. 547). These early concerns led to the first American inspection visit to Dimona in mid-May 1961, followed by a face-to-face meeting between Kennedy and Israeli Prime Minister David Ben-Gurion on May 30. The nuclear issue was also discussed in a meeting between Kennedy and Israeli Foreign Minister Golda Meir in late December 1962. Ben-Gurion explicitly told Kennedy that Israel's nuclear program was for peaceful purposes, and Meir emphatically stressed that Israel was not on the path to developing nuclear weapons.

In early 1963, American concerns resurfaced. In January, Kennedy received a new National Intelligence Assessment (NIE) highlighting the weapons potential of Dimona. This assessment indicated that the Dimona complex was likely to become operational later that year. According to the NIE, once Dimona was operating at full capacity, Israel could be on track to produce enough plutonium for one or two weapons per year. Weeks later, in mid-March, Sherman Kent, Director of the Office of National Assessments, signed an intelligence assessment pointing to the negative regional and global consequences for the U.S. of Israel acquiring nuclear weapons. On March 25, Kennedy met with CIA Director John McCone to discuss the Israeli nuclear program and shortly afterward instructed National Security Advisor McGeorge Bundy to strengthen U.S. intelligence gathering capabilities on both the Israeli nuclear program and Egypt's "advanced weapons programs." The following day, Bundy issued National Security Action Memorandum (NSAM) 231, a formal directive to the State Department, Defense Office, and CIA to examine "Middle East Nuclear Capabilities."

In early April, Kennedy and his advisors transformed their concerns about Dimona into a quiet but firm policy demand: they stipulated that Israel conduct regular, twice-yearly US inspections (or, in more diplomatic language, "visits") to Dimona. Initially, Kennedy exerted pressure through diplomatic messages. On April 2, Israeli Ambassador Walworth Barbour conveyed the US request for semi-annual American visits to Ben-Gurion; two days later, Israeli Ambassador Avraham Harman was summoned to the State Department for a similar message.

Ben-Gurion was expected to respond to Kennedy's request regarding Dimona in his next meeting with Barbour, but he was not prepared for a direct confrontation with a determined US president. Nor was he prepared to accept Kennedy's goal of semi-annual visits; This would have ended Dimona's role as the embodiment of Ben-Gurion's existential assurance. Instead, he sought to avoid a conflict by distracting Kennedy.

On April 17, 1963, an opportunity arose: Egypt, Syria, and Iraq signed the Arab Federation Declaration, calling for a military alliance to secure the "liberation of Palestine." Such rhetoric was not new at the time, but Ben-Gurion used it to initiate a discussion with President Kennedy about Israel's overall security predicament, avoiding Kennedy's specific request regarding Dimona. Whether Ben-Gurion truly viewed the Arab Federation Declaration as an existential threat to Israel is unclear, but it implicitly justified his efforts to create a last-resort option without explicitly rejecting Kennedy's request.

Ben-Gurion's focus on the threat posed by the Arab Federation Declaration, and Kennedy's focus on the danger of Israel's nuclear program, led to a highly discordant exchange of letters and personal messages between the two leaders throughout the spring of 1963. Ben-Gurion raised the specter of "another Holocaust" and insisted that Israel needed external security guarantees. However, such an arrangement was out of the question because Kennedy believed that such blatant favoritism towards Israel would damage U.S. relations with Arab states.

Kennedy did not back down on the Dimona issue and was determined not to allow Ben-Gurion to change the course of the discussion. He considered the Prime Minister's concern about the Arab Federation Declaration both nothing new and practically

meaningless, insisting that the real danger to the region was the deployment of advanced offensive systems, particularly nuclear weapons. To address this concern, Kennedy explored an arms control plan that would include both Israel and Egypt. He was willing to meet. However, it was clear that the main focus was halting Israel's nuclear program.

In retrospect, this meeting had turned into a conflict between the President of the United States and the Israeli Prime Ministers over the future of Israel's nuclear program. The culmination of this conflict was Kennedy's June 15th letter, which Ambassador Barbour was supposed to deliver to Ben-Gurion the following day. The letter contained detailed technical conditions in which Kennedy insisted on the conduct of his biennial visits to the US. The letter was an ultimatum: if the US government could not obtain "reliable information" about the status of the Dimona project, Washington's "commitment and support to Israel" could be "seriously jeopardized." However, the letter was never delivered to Ben-Gurion because that day he announced his resignation, surprising his country and the world.

Ambassador Barbour, preparing to deliver the letter, informed the State Department and requested instructions. They advised that the delivery be postponed "until the cabinet issue is resolved" and that the letter be addressed to the next Prime Minister; Kennedy and his advisors followed this advice.

On July 5th, less than ten days after Levi Eshkol became Prime Minister, Barbour delivered him a three-page letter from Kennedy. This letter, with a few lines of congratulations to the new leader, was almost identical to the one sent to Ben-Gurion on June 15th. No American president had been so blunt to an Israeli prime minister since President Dwight Eisenhower's message to Ben-Gurion during the Suez crisis in November 1956. The specific demands presented to Ben-Gurion regarding how the US inspection visits to Dimona should be conducted remained word for word in the new letter. Many of Eshkol's advisors saw the letter as a veritable ultimatum, a brewing crisis.

Surprised by Kennedy's harsh demands on Dimona just days after taking office, Eshkol's initial reaction was to request more time for consultations. Eshkol responded more than six weeks after receiving the letter, but on August 19th, with a response that was at times ambiguous. Under pressure from Kennedy, Eshkol reluctantly allowed, in principle, regular

visits by American scientists to Dimona. However, he did not approve an early visit and avoided making a commitment to the biennial US inspections that Kennedy had requested.

The exchange of letters between President Kennedy and the two Israeli prime ministers led to the annual US inspections of the Dimona complex for six years (1964–69) until President Richard Nixon ended them. (The first inspection in January 1964 may have been delayed due to Kennedy's assassination.) Lyndon Johnson, while less willing to hold the Israelis accountable, was concerned about nuclear proliferation and supported the inspections. However, the Israelis made breakthroughs in nuclear weapons development in the 1960s despite the inspections; this suggests that the inspections had little deterrent or preventative effect.

3.3.3 Operation Northwoods

Operation Northwoods was a proposed false flag operation which originated within the Department of Defense of the US government in 1962. The proposals called for Central Intelligence Agency (CIA) operatives to both stage and commit acts of terrorism against US military and civilian targets, blame them on the Cuban government, and use them to justify a war against Cuba. The possibilities in the document included the remote control of civilian aircraft which would be secretly repainted as US Air Force planes, a fabricated 'shoot down' of a US Air Force fighter aircraft off the coast of Cuba, the possible assassination of Cuban immigrants, sinking boats of Cuban refugees on the high seas, exploding a US ship, and orchestrating terrorism in US cities. The proposals were rejected by US President John F. Kennedy.

Fidel Castro had taken power in Cuba in 1959 and began allowing communists into the new Cuban government, nationalizing US businesses and improving relations with the Soviet Union during the Cold War, arousing the concern of the US military. The operation proposed creating public support for a war against Cuba by blaming the Cuban government for terrorist acts that would be perpetrated by the US government. Operation Northwoods proposals recommended hijackings and bombings followed by the introduction of false evidence that would implicate the Cuban government. It stated:

The desired resultant from the execution of this plan would be to place the United States in the apparent position of suffering defensible grievances from a rash and irresponsible

government of Cuba and to develop an international image of a Cuban threat to peace in the Western Hemisphere.

Several other proposals were included within Operation Northwoods, including real or simulated actions against various US military and civilian targets. The operation recommended developing a "Communist Cuban terror campaign in the Miami area, in other Florida cities and even in Washington", which involved the bombing of civilian targets, which was to be blamed on the Cuban government to paint a false image of Fidel Castro and misinform the American public.

The plan was drafted by the Joint Chiefs of Staff, signed by Chairman Lyman Lemnitzer and sent to the Secretary of Defense. Although part of the US government's anti-communist Cuban Project, Operation Northwoods was never officially accepted; it was authorized by the Joint Chiefs of Staff but then rejected by President Kennedy. None of the false flag operations became active under the auspices of the Operation Northwoods proposals.

Origins and public release

The main Operation Northwoods proposal was presented in a document titled "Justification for U.S. Military Intervention in Cuba (TS)," a top secret collection of draft memoranda written by the Department of Defense (DoD) and the Joint Chiefs of Staff (JCS). The document was presented by the Joint Chiefs of Staff to Secretary of Defense Robert McNamara on 13 March 1962 as a preliminary submission for planning purposes. The Joint Chiefs recommended that both the covert and overt aspects of any such operation be assigned to them. The previously secret document was originally made public on November 18, 1997, by the John F. Kennedy Assassination Records Review Board, a U.S. federal agency overseeing the release of government records related to John F. Kennedy's assassination. A total of 1,521 pages of once-secret military records covering 1962 to 1964 were concomitantly declassified by said Review Board.

"Appendix to Enclosure A" and "Annex to Appendix to Enclosure A" of the Northwoods document were first published online by the National Security Archive on 6 November 1998 in a joint venture with CNN as part of its 1998 Cold War television documentary series—specifically, as a documentation supplement to "Episode 10: Cuba," which aired on 29

November 1998. "Annex to Appendix to Enclosure A" is the section of the document which contains the proposals to stage false flag terrorist attacks.

The Northwoods document was published online in a more complete form, including cover memoranda, by the National Security Archive on 30 April 2001.

Provocations

Responding to a request for pretexts for military intervention by the Chief of Operations of the Cuba Project, Brig. Gen. Edward Lansdale, the document listed methods, such as false flag provocations, that the authors believed would garner support for U.S. Military intervention in Cuba. According to the documents, the plan called for several steps to be taken in an attempt to provoke Cuba into an action against the United States, then blame it for "hostilities" carried out by the U.S. against its military base at Guantanamo; these would be followed by executing offensive operations there against tactical Cuban civilian targets and military emplacements, leading to "large scale United States military operations":

Since it would seem desirable to use legitimate provocation as the basis for U.S. Military intervention in Cuba, a cover and deception plan, to include requisite preliminary actions such as had been developed in response to Task 33 c, could be executed as an initial effort to provoke Cuban reactions. Harassment plus deceptive actions to convince the Cubans of imminent invasion would be emphasized. Our military posture throughout execution of the plan will allow a rapid change from exercise to intervention if Cuban response justifies.

A series of well-coordinated incidents will be planned to take place in and around Guantanamo to give genuine appearance of being done by hostile Cuban forces.

The United States would respond by executing offensive operations to secure water and power supplies, destroying artillery and mortar emplacements which threaten the base.

Commence large scale United States military operations.

3.4.1 CIA Tensions

The CIA Kennedy assassination conspiracy theory is a prominent conspiracy theory surrounding the assassination of John F. Kennedy. According to ABC News, the Central Intelligence Agency (CIA) is represented in almost every theory involving American conspiracy theorists. The secretive nature of the CIA and the assumptions surrounding high-profile political assassinations in the United States during the 1960s have made the CIA a likely suspect for some who believe in conspiracy theories. Conspiracy theorists have put

forward various reasons for the CIA's involvement in President Kennedy's assassination; these include Kennedy's dismissal of CIA director Allen Dulles, Kennedy's refusal to provide air support for the Bay of Pigs invasion, Kennedy's plan to cut the agency's budget by 20 percent, and the belief that the president was weak on communism. In 1979, the House Assassination Select Committee (HSCA) concluded that the CIA was not involved in the Kennedy assassination.

Background

Main article: John F. Kennedy assassination

John F. Kennedy, the 35th President of the United States, was assassinated on November 22, 1963, in Dallas, Texas. Lee Harvey Oswald was charged with killing Kennedy and Dallas police officer JD Tippit, but was killed two days later by nightclub owner Jack Ruby.

In 1964, the Warren Commission concluded that Oswald killed Kennedy and Tippit and that there was no evidence that Oswald was involved in a conspiracy. However, inconsistencies between official investigations and the extraordinary nature of the assassination have led to various theories about how and why Kennedy was killed and the possibility of a conspiracy. In 1979, the House Election Committee on Assassinations (HSCA) agreed that Oswald killed Kennedy, but stated that a second gunman likely also shot Kennedy and that a conspiracy was probable. The committee's conclusion of the conspiracy was based almost entirely on the results of a forensic analysis of a police dictatorial recording that was later disputed.

Origin and History

In 1966, New Orleans District Attorney Jim Garrison launched an investigation into the assassination of President Kennedy. Garrison's investigation led him to conclude that a group of right-wing extremists, along with elements of the Central Intelligence Agency (CIA), were involved in a plot to kill Kennedy. Garrison also came to believe that businessman Clay Shaw, president of the International Trade Center in New Orleans, was part of the plot. On March 1, 1967, Garrison arrested and charged Shaw with conspiracy to assassinate President Kennedy.

Three days after Shaw's arrest, the Italian leftist newspaper Paese Sera published an article alleging that Shaw was connected to the CIA through his involvement in the Centro Mondiale

Commerciale (CMC), a subsidiary of the trade organization Permindex, of which he was a board member.] According to Paese Sera, the CMC was a front organization developed by the CIA to channel funds to Italy for "illegal political espionage activities." Paese Sera also reported that the CMC attempted to overthrow French President Charles de Gaulle in the early 1960s. The newspaper published further allegations about individuals it claimed were connected to Permindex; among them was Louis Bloomfield, whom it described as "an American agent currently posing as a Canadian businessman and secretly associating with Christian Democrat and neo-Fascist party deputies in Rome."

The allegations were reprinted in various newspapers associated with Communist parties in Italy (l'Unità), France (L'Humanité), and the Soviet Union (Pravda), as well as in left-wing newspapers in Canada and Greece, before reaching the American press eight weeks later. American journalist Max Holland, citing archives published by Vasili Mitrokhin, wrote that the KGB planted the original news in Paese Sera, thus influencing both Garrison's subsequent accusations against the CIA and Oliver Stone's 1991 film JFK. In 1969, Shaw was tried for plotting to assassinate Kennedy, and the jury found him not guilty.

The CIA denied and attempted to counter the allegations of involvement. A declassified CIA telegram from 1967, sent to CIA overseas stations and bases, encouraged agents not to discuss the assassination if such a discussion wasn't already taking place. He also suggests that agents should "discuss public opinion issues with contacts and friendly elites, especially politicians and editors" and "use elements of propaganda to respond to and refute attacks from critics." He emphasizes book reviews and articles as a method and argues that "some parts of the conspiracy theory were deliberately produced by Communist propagandists." This encourages the claim that "the CIA was responsible for the assassination."

Supporters and believers

Jim Garrison claimed that anti-communist and anti-Castro extremists within the CIA plotted the Kennedy assassination to maintain tensions with the Soviet Union and Cuba and prevent the United States from withdrawing from Vietnam. James Douglass, in his book JFK and the Unexplainable, wrote that the CIA killed Kennedy on the orders of conspirators in the "military-industrial complex," choosing Lee Harvey Oswald as a scapegoat in the process. Like Garrison, Douglass stated that Kennedy was killed because he was moving away from

the Cold War and pursuing paths of nuclear disarmament, rapprochement with Fidel Castro, and withdrawal from the war in Vietnam. Mark Lane, the lawyer who defended Liberty Lobby in a libel lawsuit brought by former CIA agent E. Howard Hunt, author of the books *Rush to Judgment* and *Plausible Denial*, has been described as one of the leading proponents of the theory that the CIA was responsible for the Kennedy assassination. Other individuals who believe the CIA was involved include authors Anthony Summers and John M. Newman are also included.

In 1977, the FBI released 40,000 files relating to the Kennedy assassination; among them was a memorandum dated April 3, 1967, from Deputy Director Cartha DeLoach to Deputy Director Clyde Tolson, written less than a month after President Johnson learned from J. Edgar Hoover about CIA plans to assassinate Fidel Castro. According to DeLoach, LBJ's aide, Marvin Watson, stated that "the President told him that he was now convinced that there was a conspiracy connected to President Kennedy's assassination in a moment of carelessness. Watson stated that the President thought the CIA had a hand in this conspiracy." When questioned during the Church Committee hearings in 1975, DeLoach told Senator Richard Schweiker that he "thought Watson's testimony was pure speculation.

3.5 Vienna Summit

Khrushchev and Kennedy before to the summit

Kennedy and Khrushchev first met at the Vienna Summit in June 1961. Prior to meeting face to face, their contact began when Khrushchev sent Kennedy a message on November 9, 1960, congratulating him on his presidential election victory and stating his hope that "relations between the US and USSR would again follow the line along which they were developing in Franklin Roosevelt's time." He also told Kennedy that the USSR desired to negotiate with the U.S. on issues relating to "disarmament ... a German peace treaty ... and other questions which could bring about an easing and improvement of the entire international situation." In a reply message, Kennedy thanked Khrushchev and similar niceties continued until 1961.

On February 22, 1961, Kennedy sent Khrushchev a letter stating, "I hope it will be possible, before too long, for us to meet personally for an informal exchange of views." This was the first time either man suggested a diplomatic meeting. Kennedy felt "that if he could just sit down with Khrushchev" the two leaders could work out their interstate conflicts. Yet, Kennedy's advisors told him not to meet with Khrushchev so soon after the presidential

election. The American ambassador to Moscow, Llewellyn E. Thompson, feared that Kennedy misjudged Khrushchev's personality and intentions. Likewise, U.S. diplomat Charles Bohlen "worried that JFK underrated Khrushchev's determination to expand world communism." Nevertheless, Khrushchev accepted Kennedy's summit proposal, and the leaders began to make plans for their official meeting. Meanwhile, Cold War rivalries between the two powers escalated in Germany, Laos, and Cuba. These regional conflicts became major items on the Vienna Summit agenda.

The Berlin Question

Between 1945 and 1961, 2.7 million East Germans emigrated from East Berlin, a part of the German Democratic Republic (GDR), to West Berlin. GDR leader Walter Ulbricht argued that the large number of emigrants leaving East Berlin threatened the existence of the GDR by diminishing its population. In the early months of 1961, Ulbricht pressured Khrushchev to close the border between East and West Berlin. Khrushchev understood Ulbricht's concern but feared that a potential intervention from Western powers would destabilize East Berlin further. Thompson warned in February 1961 that if there were "no progress" on Berlin and Germany, Khrushchev would "almost certainly proceed with his separate peace treaty..." The notion of a separate peace treaty threatened American interests in West Germany; if the USSR rendered complete control of East Berlin to the East German government, then the US could only communicate with and control West Berlin with permission from the East German government.

The Berlin Question—whether or not the US would allow the USSR to sign a separate peace treaty with Berlin—dominated Khrushchev and Kennedy's debates at the Vienna Summit. The signing of a separate peace treaty with Berlin did not appeal to American policymakers, who felt comfortable with the division of Germany and Berlin itself. A peace treaty threatened the established balance of power and could potentially lead to the United States losing all its influence in East Berlin.

The Laos Question

A lesser-known conflict fueled controversy at the Vienna Summit as well. "As in Berlin, Kennedy inherited in Laos a situation aggravated by near-direct armed confrontation between the Soviet Union and the United States." During Eisenhower's presidency, the US backed a

right-wing conservative government (royal government) in Laos to counter the communist threat of the popular Pathet Lao. In Laos, "the Eisenhower government committed millions of dollars in aid" in order to continue the rule of a pro-American leader. Both the Soviets and the Americans knew that a proxy war in Laos drove both countries further into an arms race. Under this context, Khrushchev and Kennedy discussed the Laos situation at length at the Vienna Summit.

The Bay of Pigs Invasion

The American-facilitated Bay of Pigs Invasion of April 1961 also rocked Khrushchev and Kennedy's relationship. On April 18, 1961, Khrushchev sent Kennedy a telegram that said, "Mr. President, I send you this message in an hour of alarm, fraught with danger for the peace of the whole world. Armed aggression has begun against Cuba." Kennedy countered by saying that the Americans were merely helping support the "100,000 Cubans" attempting to the Castro dictatorship." He claimed that the Americans fought on the side of freedom and Cuban self-determination.

Kennedy knew that the Cuban invasion sparked controversy. Therefore, Kennedy felt it crucial to meet with Khrushchev as soon as possible. He hoped that open channels of communication could remedy some of the conflict between the US and the USSR. Khrushchev and Kennedy met in Vienna on June 4, 1961.

Discussions

Khrushchev and Kennedy devoted a significant amount of time at the Vienna Summit to discussing the Berlin Crisis. Khrushchev opened the conversation by expressing the Soviet perspective that a united Germany could lead to another World War. He pointed to the fact that Germany began World War II. Only 15 years after the end of that war, Germany again posed a "military threat" as a member of NATO. Khrushchev explained that the USSR desired to sign a separate peace treaty with East Germany. Such a treaty, he argued, "would not prejudice the interests of the U.S., the UK, or France." He told Kennedy that if the United States failed to support a peace treaty, the Soviet Union would sign the peace treaty unilaterally.

Kennedy replied that American forces occupied Berlin "by contractual rights" rather than by the agreement of East Germans. Kennedy understood the Soviet perspective but feared that if the US removed its troops from Berlin, "no one would have any confidence in U.S. commitments and pledges. Kennedy insisted that the US maintain its position in Berlin for strategic purposes. Although Kennedy argued that the current balance of power in Germany was effective, Khrushchev said that "no force in the world would prevent the USSR from signing a peace treaty."

When Kennedy pointed out that such a treaty required unilateral action on the part of the Soviet Union, thereby ignoring the four-power agreement signed at the end of World War II, Khrushchev stated that such a peace treaty nullified the four-power agreement. He insisted that the city of Berlin should belong solely to the German Democratic Republic. West Germany, Khrushchev told Kennedy, would remain under American influence. Kennedy countered by saying that the US could not accept such an agreement owing to the prestige it would lose as a result. In light of this remark, Khrushchev suggested that an "interim arrangement" was considered. Khrushchev remained firm in the fact that "the Soviet Union would sign the peace treaty in December if the U.S. refused an interim agreement."

Kennedy hoped to determine the Soviets' feeling regarding the neutralization of Laos. Kennedy wanted to convince Khrushchev that the United States and Soviet Union could work together to de-escalate tensions in the unstable state. "Without a firm Soviet commitment to stop supplying the guerillas and to persuade the North Vietnamese to halt their efforts, nothing could be accomplished," Kennedy asserted. On the first day of the Summit, Kennedy quickly discovered that Khrushchev was in no mood to discuss the Laos situation. Khrushchev only rebuffed the United States for playing a significant role in the overthrowing of the Laos government.

The next day, Kennedy approached the Laos subject again. This time, Khrushchev negotiated more willingly. Khrushchev agreed that a "neutral and independent Laos chosen by the Laotians themselves" benefited both the US and the USSR. Although the leaders made no official agreement, they did reach a consensus regarding the future of Laos—cease-fire and ultimate neutralization. This agreement proved to be one of the only achievements of the Vienna Summit.

Outcomes

Seymour Topping's article on "Khrushchev and Vienna" ran in The New York Times on June 3—the day before the conference began. Topping correctly identified the major points of conversation that dominated the conference—the Berlin and Laos questions. Topping also correctly stated Khrushchev's opinions regarding each issue and pinpointed the Soviet perspective on Berlin. Clearly, both the Americans and the Soviets had ample information regarding the other's position prior to the opening of the Summit. However, no one could predict the outcome of the summit, including the leaders' reactions to each other.

For the Americans, the summit was initially seen as a diplomatic triumph. Kennedy had refused to allow Soviet pressure to force his hand, or to influence the American policy of containment. He had adequately stalled Khrushchev and made it clear that the United States was not willing to compromise on a withdrawal from Berlin, whatever pressure Khrushchev may exert on the "testicles of the West", as Khrushchev once called them.

In retrospect the summit may be seen as a failure. The two leaders became increasingly frustrated at the lack of progress of the negotiations. Kennedy later said of Khrushchev, "He beat the hell out of me" and told New York Times reporter James 'Scotty' Reston immediately afterwards it was the "worst thing in my life. He savaged me." On the other hand, Khrushchev viewed the summit in a much more positive light. In his memoir he showed ambivalence, writing, "I was generally pleased with our meeting in Vienna. Even though we came to no concrete agreement, I could tell that Kennedy was interested in finding a peaceful solution to world problems and avoiding conflict with the Soviet Union." However, historian William Taubman suggests that Khrushchev merely felt he could "push Kennedy around."

In addition to conveying US reluctance to defend the full rights of Berlin's citizens, Kennedy ignored his own cabinet officials' advice to avoid ideological debate with Khrushchev. Khrushchev outmatched Kennedy in this debate and came away believing he had triumphed in the summit over a weak and inexperienced leader. Observing Kennedy's morose expression at the end of the summit, Khrushchev believed Kennedy "looked not only anxious, but deeply upset.... I hadn't meant to upset him. I would have liked very much for us to part in a different mood. But there was nothing I could do to help him.... Politics is a merciless business."

After the failure of the Bay of Pigs Invasion, the construction of the Berlin Wall, and the Cuban Missile Crisis, then Kennedy believed that another failure on the part of the United States to gain control and stop communist expansion would fatally damage US credibility with its allies and his own reputation. He was thus determined to "draw a line in the sand" and prevent a communist victory in the Vietnam War. He told Reston, "Now we have a problem making our power credible and Vietnam looks like the place.

3.6 U-2 Incident

U-2 Incident, (1960), confrontation between the United States and the Soviet Union that began with the shooting down of a U.S. U-2 reconnaissance plane over the Soviet Union and that caused the collapse of a summit conference in Paris between the United States, the Soviet Union, the United Kingdom, and France.

On May 5, 1960, the Soviet premier Nikita S. Khrushchev told the Supreme Soviet of the U.S.S.R. that an American spy plane had been shot down on May 1 over Sverdlovsk (now Yekaterinburg), referring to the flight as an "aggressive act" by the United States.

Nikita Khrushchev

Nikita Khrushchev Russian politician Nikita Khrushchev, 1960.

On May 7 he revealed that the pilot of the plane, Francis Gary Powers, had parachuted to safety, was alive and well in Moscow, and had tested that he had taken off from Peshawar, in Pakistan, with the mission of flying across the Soviet Union over the Aral Sea and via Sverdlovsk, Kirov, Arkhangelsk, and Murmansk to Bodø military airfield in Norway, collecting intelligence information en route. Powers admitted working for the U.S. Central Intelligence Agency.

On May 7 the United States stated that there had been no authorization for any such flight as Khrushchev had described, although a U-2 probably had flown over Soviet territory. The Soviet Union refused to accept that the U.S. government had no knowledge of the flights and on May 13 sent protest notes to Turkey, Pakistan, and Norway, which in turn protested to the United States, seeking assurances that no U.S. aircraft would be allowed to use their territory for unauthorized purposes. On May 16 in Paris Khrushchev declared that the Soviet Union

could not take part in the summit talks unless the U.S. The government immediately stopped flights over the Soviet territory, apologized for those already made, and punished the persons responsible. The response of Pres. Dwight D. Eisenhower, promising to suspend all such flights during the remainder of his presidency, did not satisfy the Soviet Union, and the conference was adjourned on May 17. Francis Gary Powers was tried (August 17–19) and sentenced to 10 years' confinement, but he was exchanged for the Soviet spy Rudolf Abel on February 10, 1962.

3.7 West New Guinea Dispute

The western half of the island of New Guinea, West New Guinea had been under Dutch control since 1828. It was part of the Dutch colonies created by the Dutch East India Company, or *Vereenigde Oost-Indische Compagnie* (VOC). The VOC had a trading monopoly in parts of the island chain, now known as Indonesia, that dated back to the early 1600s. These trading ports became the territories known as the Netherlands East Indies. After the collapse of the VOC in the late 18th century, these territories came under the control of the Netherlands Government.

After World War II ended in 1945, Indonesia declared its independence from the Netherlands and became a republic. Despite attempts to reclaim its territories, the Netherlands eventually recognised Indonesia's independence in 1949. In the Charter of Transfer of Sovereignty, also known as the Hague Agreement, the Netherlands agreed to transfer its control of the former Dutch East Indies to Indonesia, except for West New Guinea.

The status of West New Guinea, which was also known as West Irian, remained undecided. Indonesia insisted the territory belonged to it, while the Dutch argued that the Papuans of West New Guinea should decide their own future. Indonesia brought the matter before the UN in 1954, but no resolution was found.

Tensions escalated in early 1962 when Indonesian paratroopers landed in West New Guinea, which at that time was still under Dutch control. Fearing an outbreak of war, the UN brokered an agreement between the 2 nations, which was signed at the UN Headquarters in New York

on 15 August 1962. The New York Agreement stated that the Dutch would leave West New Guinea and transfer sovereignty to a UN trusteeship. A national vote would be held at a future date for Papuans to decide if they wanted to integrate with Indonesia or become an independent state.

A UN first

UNTEA was established to supervise the transfer of West New Guinea from Dutch colonial rule to Indonesian administration. It operated from October 1962 to April 1963 and marked the first time in its history that the UN had temporary executive authority over a territory.

UNTEA's role was to maintain law and order alongside the Papuan police, protect the rights of the Papuan people and ensure normal services continued until 1 May 1963. After that point, West New Guinea would be under the administration of Indonesia.

Before UNTEA could step in, a ceasefire between the Netherlands and Indonesia had to be enforced. The New York Agreement stipulated that a United Nations Security Force (UNSF) would assist UNTEA and monitor the ceasefire. This meant the UN had both a peacekeeping role in West New Guinea and an administrative one. The ceasefire came into effect on 18 August 1962.

The UNSF comprised 1,500 Pakistani troops, as well as detachments from the Royal Canadian Air Force and the United States Air Force. A 21-person military observer team was also assembled to supervise the ceasefire, with personnel from Brazil, Ceylon (now Sri Lanka), India, Ireland, Nigeria and Sweden.

An Australian humanitarian mission

In late September 1962, an outbreak of cholera was detected in West New Guinea on the Casuarina Coast, west of Merauke. The outbreak had already claimed 1,200 lives by the time a World Health Organization medical team arrived. The terrain of crocodile-infested mangrove swamps and rainforest meant access to the area was difficult, compounded by the tropical heat and high humidity.

UNTEA asked Australia for a helicopter and pilot to help transport medical supplies and personnel to and from the affected area. Concerned about the outbreak spreading to the neighbouring Australian-administered Territory of Papua and New Guinea, Australia agreed to assist.

A detachment of 11 personnel was drawn from the No. 16 Army Light Aircraft Squadron, based at RAAF Base Amberley in Queensland. The small team consisted of 4 Army pilots and 7 RAAF ground crew, along with 2 Australian Army Bell H-13 Sioux helicopters. The Australian operation did not have a codename.

Unlike other UN missions, where the Cabinet of the Australian Government made the call on Australia's contribution, it was key ministers who decided on Australia's involvement in UNTEA. This was due to concern about the cholera epidemic spreading. The Australian mission was essentially a humanitarian one, but was part of a larger UN peacekeeping mission. The detachment deployed on 18 November 1962.

Australians in West New Guinea

Australian David Wilson was the UNTEA Divisional Commissioner in Merauke, one of 6 divisional commissioners in the mission. The commissioners liaised between the UNTEA mission base and the Papuan communities, relaying information and recording regional activities.

Four Army pilots served in the detachment, commanded by Captain David Chinn. A veteran of the Malayan Emergency, Chinn also later served in the Vietnam War. The Army pilots were Captain Dick Knight, Captain Norman Hansen and Second Lieutenant James Campbell.

There were also 7 RAAF ground crew, headed by Warrant Officer Richard Pickering. These were Sergeant A.G. Maddison, Corporal R.S. Matthews and Corporal Laurence Simpson, along with 3 leading aircraftmen, Douglas Johnston, Mervyn Halliday and Robert Dodd. The detachment was helped by a small UN fixed-wing aircraft piloted by Australian Murray Douglas, a former flight lieutenant in the Royal Air Force.

This was not the first time members of the No. 16 Army Light Aircraft Squadron had been in the Merauke region of West New Guinea. A year earlier, Captain Knight and 10 personnel

from the squadron were part of the search team looking for a young US anthropologist, Michael C. Rockefeller, who went missing in the area after a boating accident. Rockefeller was never found.

Knight was a qualified flying instructor with good knowledge of the local terrain. This came in handy as navigating the landscape from above had its challenges. If the pilots lost visual contact with the coast or river system, the only other distinctive feature was a very tall tree, the 'Boom Kamp tree'. Once they reached the tree, the crew had clear vision to the sea.

Withdrawal

After serving for 37 days, the Australian detachment was withdrawn on 21 December 1962, arriving back in Australia on 25 December. This withdrawal was earlier than planned due to the loss of one of the helicopters, which crashed while on duty, injuring a ground crew member. Two Australian personnel were on board, pilot Captain Hansen and ground crew Corporal Simpson. They were attempting to prevent local tribesmen from escaping quarantine by canoe along the river.

The helicopter's blade hit the water during a particularly difficult manoeuvre and the aircraft crashed. Captain Hansen dragged an injured Corporal Simpson to safety. However, the helicopter could not be salvaged. With the other helicopter also out of action while waiting on parts, the decision was made to withdraw the entire detachment. UNTEA chartered a replacement civilian helicopter in January 1963, which the RAAF transported from Sydney to Merauke.

By 23 March 1963, West New Guinea was officially declared free of cholera.

7.The Great Berlin Wall

Berlin Wall, a barrier that surrounded West Berlin and prevented access to it from East Berlin and adjacent areas of East Germany during the period from 1961 to 1989. In the years

between 1949 and 1961, about 2.5 million East Germans had fled from East to West Germany, including steadily rising numbers of skilled workers, professionals, and intellectuals. Their loss threatened to destroy the economic viability of the East German state. In response, East Germany built a barrier to close off East Germans' access to West Berlin and hence West Germany. That barrier, the Berlin Wall, was first erected on the night of August 12–13, 1961, as the result of a decree passed on August 12 by the East German Volkskammer (“Peoples’ Chamber”). The original wall, built of barbed wire and cinder blocks, was subsequently replaced by a series of concrete walls (up to 15 feet 5 metres high) that were topped with barbed wire and guarded with watchtowers, gun emplacements, and mines. By the 1980s that system of walls, electrified fences, and fortifications extended 28 miles (45 km) through Berlin, dividing the two parts of the city, and extended a further 75 miles (120 km) around West Berlin, separating it from the rest of East Germany. The Berlin Wall came to symbolize the Cold War's division of East from West Germany and of eastern from western Europe. About 5,000 East Germans managed to cross the Berlin Wall (by various means) and reach West Berlin safely, while another 5,000 were captured by East German authorities in the attempt and 191 more were killed during the actual crossing of the wall.

East Germany's hard-line communist leadership was forced from power in October 1989 during the wave of democratization that swept through eastern Europe. On November 9 the East German government opened the country's borders with West Germany (including West Berlin), and openings were made in the Berlin Wall through which East Germans could travel freely to the West. The wall henceforth ceased to function as a political barrier between East and West Germany.

The Apollo Program

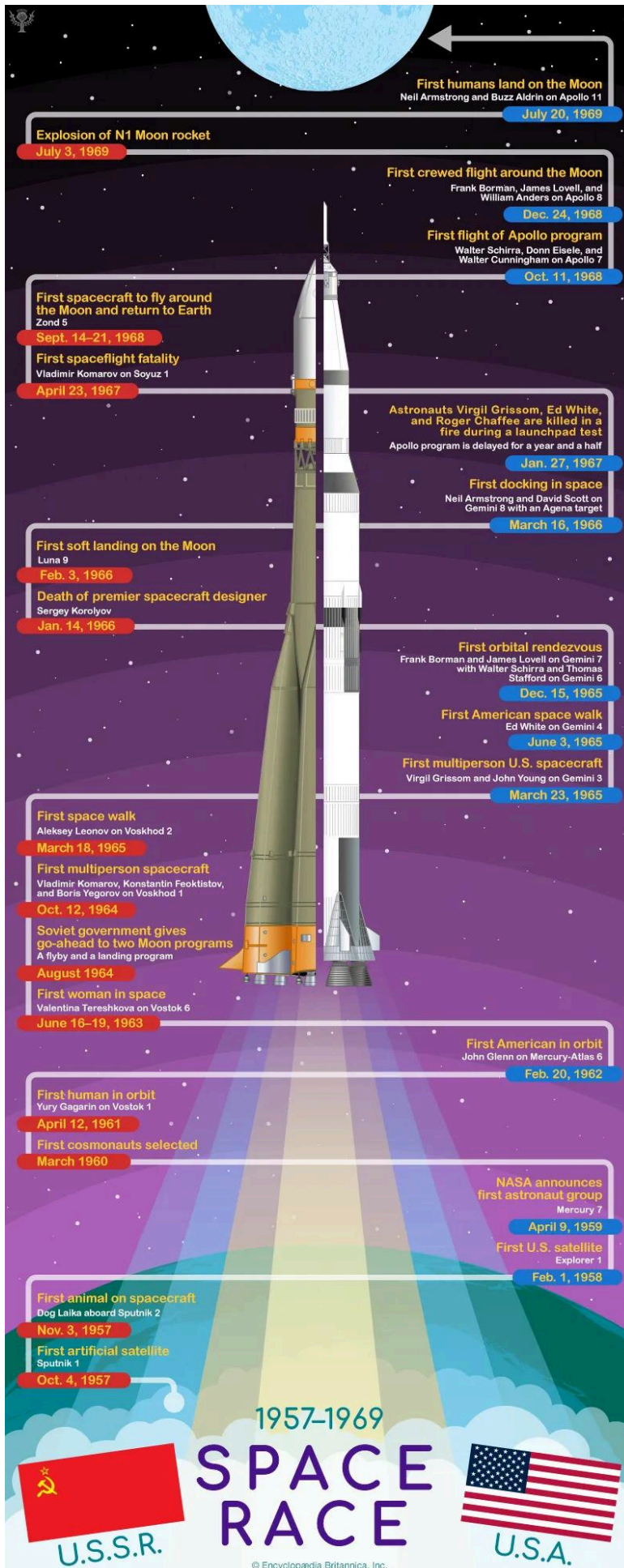
Apollo, project conducted by the U.S. National Aeronautics and Space Administration (NASA) in the 1960s and '70s that landed the first humans on the Moon. All told, 24 Apollo astronauts visited the Moon and 12 of them walked on its surface. In May 1961 Pres. John F. Kennedy committed America to landing astronauts on the Moon by 1970. The choice among competing techniques for achieving a Moon landing and return was not resolved until considerable further study. Three methods were considered. In direct ascent, one vehicle would lift off from Earth, land on the Moon, and return. However, the proposed Nova rocket

would not be ready by 1970. In Earth orbit rendezvous, a spacecraft carrying the crew would dock in Earth orbit with the propulsion unit that would carry enough fuel to go to the Moon. However, this method required two separate launches. In the method ultimately employed, lunar orbit rendezvous, a powerful launch vehicle (Saturn V rocket) placed a 50-ton spacecraft in a lunar trajectory. The spacecraft had three parts. The conical command module (CM) carried three astronauts. The service module (SM) was attached to the back of the CM and carried its fuel and power to form the command/service module (CSM). Docked to the front of the CSM was the lunar module (LM). One astronaut stayed in the CSM while the other two landed on the Moon in the LM. The LM had a descent stage and an ascent stage. The descent stage was left on the Moon, and the astronauts returned to the CSM in the ascent stage, which was discarded in lunar orbit. The LM was flown only in the vacuum of space, so aerodynamic considerations did not affect its design. (Thus, the LM has been called the first “true” spacecraft.) Before reentering Earth’s atmosphere, the SM was jettisoned to burn up. The CM splashed down in the ocean. The lunar orbit rendezvous had the advantages of requiring only one rocket and of saving fuel and mass since the LM did not need to return to Earth.

Uncrewed missions testing Apollo and the Saturn rocket began in February 1966. The first crewed Apollo flight was delayed by a tragic accident, a fire that broke out in the Apollo 1 spacecraft during a ground rehearsal on January 27, 1967, killing astronauts Virgil Grissom, Edward White, and Roger Chaffee. NASA responded by delaying the program to make changes such as not using a pure oxygen atmosphere at launch and replacing the CM hatch with one that could be opened quickly. In October 1968, following several uncrewed Earth-orbit flights, Apollo 7 made a 163-orbit flight carrying a full crew of three astronauts. Apollo 8 carried out the first step of crewed lunar exploration: from Earth orbit it was injected into a lunar trajectory, completed lunar orbit, and returned safely to Earth. Apollo 9 carried out a prolonged mission in Earth orbit to check out the LM. Apollo 10 journeyed to lunar orbit and tested the LM to within 15.2 km (9.4 miles) of the Moon’s surface. Apollo 11, in July 1969, climaxed the step-by-step procedure with a lunar landing; on July 20 astronaut Neil Armstrong and then Edwin (“Buzz”) Aldrin became the first humans to set foot on the Moon’s surface.

Apollo 13, launched in April 1970, suffered an accident caused by an explosion in an oxygen tank but returned safely to Earth. Remaining Apollo missions carried out extensive

exploration of the lunar surface, collecting 382 kg (842 pounds) of Moon rocks and installing many instruments for scientific research, such as the solar wind experiment and the seismographic measurements of the lunar surface. Beginning with Apollo 15, astronauts drove a lunar rover on the Moon. Apollo 17, the final flight of the program, took place in December 1972. In total, 12 American astronauts walked on the Moon during the six successful lunar landing missions of the Apollo program. Apollo CSMs were used in 1973 and 1974 in the Skylab program to take astronauts to an orbiting space station. In July 1975 an Apollo CSM docked with a Soviet Soyuz in the last flight of an Apollo spacecraft.



4.1 Meredith Crisis

"I think last night was the worst night I ever spent.... The deputies were out there with instructions not to fire. They were fired on, they were hit, things were thrown at them. It was an extremely dangerous situation. ... And I think it was that close. If the tear gas hadn't arrived in that last five minutes, and if these men hadn't remained true to their orders and instructions, if they had lost their heads and started firing at the crowd, you would have had immense bloodshed, and I think it would have been a very tragic situation. ... So to hear these reports that were coming in to the President and to myself all last night - when the situation with the state police having deserted the situation, and these men standing up there with courage and ability and great bravery - that was a very moving period in my life."

Attorney General Robert F. Kennedy, October 1, 1962

The University of Mississippi looks much different in 2022 than it did in 1962. Since the work of those deputy marshals who enforced the court ordered desegregation of the University of Mississippi in 1962 was never celebrated — and rarely mentioned — state and university officials recently made up for lost time by honoring them as well as other law enforcement and military personnel who were involved in safeguarding James Meredith's right to attend classes at the University of Mississippi.

History is often made when one person stands his ground and demands his dream. But history needs its enforcers. And when James Meredith sought to legally become the first black person to attend the University of Mississippi 60 years ago, the duty of upholding the federal law allowing him to do so fell upon the shoulders of 127 deputy marshals from all over the country who risked their lives to make his dream a reality. A bold challenge race relations in the United States were tumultuous in 1962. While the landmark case of *Brown v. Board of Education* of 1954 made public school segregation illegal, some states resisted the change, and the federal government did little to interfere. That changed when Meredith set his sights on becoming the first black person to attend Ole Miss. According to one biographer, Meredith was dissatisfied with race relations in the South, and in a calculated move he applied for admission. However, the university, citing administrative technicalities, refused his application numerous times over the course of the next several months. This prompted the would-be student to write a letter to Thurgood Marshall, then head of the National

Association for the Advancement of Colored People's Legal Defense Fund. In the letter, Meredith wrote that he knew the "probable difficulties involved in such a move as I am undertaking and I am fully prepared to pursue it all the way." Marshall and his organization backed Meredith wholeheartedly. In his book, "An American Insurrection: The Battle of Oxford, Mississippi," author William Doyle stated that the NAACP's backing was a key component in Meredith's eventual success. Doyle also noted that two other factors were equally important: John F. Kennedy, seen as the first president to support civil rights, took office in January 1961; and the Brown ruling was still the official law of the land. Kennedy, who scored a narrow election victory with the help of many black voters, would indeed turn out to be sympathetic to Meredith's cause, but the same could not be said of Mississippi's governor, Ross Barnett. In a statewide television broadcast, Barnett stated, "[Mississippi] will not surrender to the evil and illegal forces of tyranny ... [and] no school will be integrated in Mississippi while I am your governor." Later, the Supreme Court ruled in favor of Meredith attending classes. But Barnett was still defiant. He went on to call Meredith's attempt to enter Ole Miss "our greatest crisis since the War Between the States." The job of seeing to it that Meredith was safely admitted to the school clearly fell upon the federal government, and soon enough, President Kennedy sent deputy marshals into the fray. Three times, Chief U.S. Marshal J.P. McShane led a small contingent of deputies — without loaded guns — to register Meredith. But in each instance, they were stopped by state politicians and state troopers who were taking orders from Barnett. Finally, President Kennedy escalated matters by ordering a much larger group of deputies — 127 — to get the job done. To increase the numbers even more, McShane swore in over 300 U.S. Border Patrol agents were close to making them special deputy marshals and bringing the total number of federal law enforcement officers for this assignment to 538. The stage was set. Meredith was the first black student to attend "Ole Miss" and was registered at the school after a violent confrontation between students and Deputies. One hundred and sixty Deputies were injured - 28 by gunfire. For the next year, Deputy Marshals provided Meredith with 24 hour protection, going everywhere he went on campus, enduring the same taunts and jibes, the same heckling, the same bombardment of cherry bombs, water balloons, and trash, as Meredith did. They made sure that Meredith could attend the school of his choice.

5.1 Current Economic State

JFK never forgot that he had been elected in 1960 by one of the smallest popular vote margins in US history. The next presidential election was never far from his mind—and seemed to preoccupy his brother Bobby. When liberal Democrats pressed him to promote progressive social programs, he would often point out that he had not won a mandate and remind them that he first had to be reelected. Kennedy had campaigned on the slogan of “getting America moving again” (which the Nixon campaign staff had privately derided as the peristalsis plan). But, recovery from the 1958 recession had been very sluggish and unemployment remained perilously high—6.8% just after he took office. The Council of Economic Advisers urged him to attack unemployment with New Deal style spending but the president was worried that a large deficit (\$7 billion) would be politically untenable in 1964. Unemployment did fall modestly, but it remained stagnant at nearly 6% well into 1963. The fact was that the New Frontier had been preoccupied with foreign affairs for three years and once the Limited Nuclear Test Ban Treaty was ratified, JFK realized that it was time to turn to the economy. The 1964 election was barely a year away and likely to be fought against an articulate economic conservative, Senator Barry Goldwater of Arizona. In addition, JFK’s relationship with the business community had been uneasy from the start. His very public 1961 dispute with US Steel president Roger Blough over an increase in steel prices had reinforced the business community’s suspicions of his motives. Kennedy had won the battle but lost the war—the price increase was canceled but US Steel also announced that its new plants would be built abroad. By 1962, Kennedy’s domestic political fortunes seemed bleak.

Unemployment remained high and the stock market had failed to recover after losing a quarter of its value. JFK also ignored the advice of key aides and endorsed efforts to enact medical care for workers over 65 under Social Security and risked his personal prestige by addressing a nationally televised “Medicare” rally in New York. By the time of the May 20 gathering, JFK knew the bill would fail in the Senate after defections by key Democrats, leaving him frustrated, furious, and depressed. The president finally decided that only a bold domestic program, including tax cuts, would restore his political momentum. Declaring that the absence of recession is not tantamount to economic growth, the president proposed in 1963 to cut income taxes from a range of 20-91% to 14-65%. He also proposed a cut in the corporate tax rate

from 52% to 47%. Ironically, economic growth expanded in 1963, and Republicans and conservative Democrats in Congress insisted that reducing taxes without corresponding spending cuts was unacceptable. Kennedy disagreed, arguing that “a rising tide lifts all boats” and that strong economic growth would not continue without lower taxes. The battle over the tax cut and the deficit continued unabated through 1963. The House Ways and Means Committee voted a tax bill out of committee in August and the grateful president reiterated that lowering taxes was the surest path to full employment and lower deficits. Polls showed that over 60% of Americans favored the tax cuts. But, even with the public support of key business leaders like Henry Ford II and David Rockefeller, the Congressional log jam remained unbroken. JFK became increasingly convinced that domestic issues, the economy and civil rights, rather than foreign policy, would prove to be decisive in his 1964 reelection campaign.

5.1 1962 Investment Tax Credit

The most important section of the bill provides that a business can subtract from its tax liability 8 percent of its new investment in tangible business assets other than buildings. This tax credit is an outright subtraction from the tax and is in addition to the full allowable depreciation of the cost of the asset. The amount of the credit that can be taken in any year is limited by the amount of tax. The limitation involves the figure of \$100,000 of tax liability. For a taxpayer whose tax (before the credit) is not over \$100,000, the credit can offset his tax dollar for dollar. Where the tax is larger than \$100,000, the credit is limited to \$100,000 plus 50 percent of the part of the tax over \$100,000. Any dollar amount of credit which is not usable (because of this limitation based on the tax) may be carried over and used against tax of the following 5 years. The credit is available for investments in tangible personal property and certain real property used in business so long as it is not a building or a structural component of a building. The credit will apply to assets such as blast furnaces, outdoor machinery, etc., which under State law might be classified as real estate. The investment credit is not available for property which when acquired has an expected useful life (for depreciation) of less than 4 years. Where the expected useful life is between 4 and 6 years, one-third of the normal 8 percent credit is allowed; where the life is between 6 and 8 years, two-thirds of the normal credit; where it is 8 years and over, 8 percent is available. Without the above limitations, short-lived property would

otherwise get an advantage over long-lived property because a new credit would be available on the short-lived property each time that it was replaced. Property used in regulated public utilities, other than transportation, generally will be entitled to one-half of the normal credit (e.g., 4 percent for 8 years and over). No credit will be allowed with respect to property located outside of the United States. The credit is not allowed for equipment used in residential housing but it will be available for equipment used in hotels and motels. A limited credit is available with respect to the purchase of used property up to \$50,000 of purchases a year. Where new property is acquired by a firm in the business of leasing property, it may permit the lessee of the property to take the investment credit to which the owner of the property would be otherwise entitled. The bill provides that on which the taxpayer originally obtained the credit is sold within 8 years of the time of acquisition, the taxpayer will be required to recompute the credit to which he was originally entitled, basing it now on the actual period for which he held the property. If the property is disposed of within 4 years, for example, the taxpayer, in accordance with the general rule, would not be entitled to any credit. This readjustment rule also applies where the property is shifted to an ineligible status (e.g., outside the United States). The investment credit will apply with respect to property acquired after December 31, 1961. In the case of property constructed or reconstructed by the taxpayer, the credit will only apply to so much of the property as was built after that date.

3.6 Congo Crisis

The decolonization of Sub-Saharan Africa from the late 1950s to the mid-1970s resulted in several proxy Cold War confrontations between the United States and the Soviet Union over dozens of newly independent, non-aligned nations. The first such confrontation occurred in the former Belgian Congo, which gained its independence on June 30, 1960.

In the months leading up to independence, the Congolese elected a president, Joseph Kasavubu, prime minister, Patrice Lumumba, a senate and assembly, and similar bodies in the Congo's numerous provinces. The Eisenhower administration had high hopes that the Republic of the Congo would form a stable, pro-Western, central government. Those hopes vanished in a matter of days as the newly independent

nation descended into chaos. On July 5, Congolese soldiers in the Force Publique mutinied against their white Belgian commanders at the Thysville military base, seeking higher pay as well as greater opportunity and authority. The mutiny quickly spread to other bases and violence soon broke out across the nation. Thousands of Europeans (primarily Belgians) fled, and stories of atrocities against whites surfaced in newspapers around the globe. Unable to control the indigenous army (renamed the Congolese National Army), the Belgians brought in troops to restore order without seeking permission to do so from either Kasavubu or Lumumba. In response, the Congolese government appealed directly to the United Nations to provide troops and demanded the removal of Belgian troops. On July 13, the United Nations approved a resolution which authorized the creation of an intervention force, the Organisations des Nations Unies au Congo (ONUC), and called for the withdrawal of all Belgian troops. Two days earlier, the wealthy Katanga province had declared its independence from the Republic of the Congo, followed in August by South Kasai province. While the United States supported the U.N. effort, members of the Eisenhower administration, increasingly concerned that the Congo crisis would provide an opening for Soviet intervention, sought a diplomatic solution to the crisis. Lumumba was invited to visit Washington in late July, in the hopes that the United States could exert a moderating influence on the prime minister. The visit underscored the futility of that effort. Reports from Lawrence Devlin, the CIA Chief of Station in Leopoldville (Kinshasa), described the situation in the Congo as a classic Communist takeover. The reports, coupled with the arrival of Soviet bloc technicians and matériel, convinced members of the national security team that Lumumba had to be removed. A flurry of U.S. diplomatic activity in support of unseating Lumumba ensued. Plans were also developed to assassinate Lumumba if necessary. On September 5, Kasavubu dismissed Lumumba from the government. Lumumba ignored the decree and dismissed Kasavubu. Lumumba's supporters in the Congo and abroad were outraged and pledged to support his return to office. In an attempt to avoid civil war, Colonel Joseph Mobutu of the Congolese National Army (CNA) orchestrated a coup d'état on September 14, and ordered the Soviets out of the country. Mobutu's early efforts to support a pro-Western government and his ties to the military placed him in good stead with Devlin, who informed Mobutu of a plot to assassinate him on September 18. Lumumba, who was blamed for the plot, was arrested and ultimately killed on January 17, 1961. Over the next four years, as the Republic of the Congo

installed a series of prime ministers, the United States repeatedly attempted to create a stable, pro-Western regime through vote buying and financial support for pro-Western candidates. Mobutu also received funds to help him gain the loyalty of the CNA and avoid rebellion in the ranks. Neither effort succeeded in quelling the seemingly endless unrest in the volatile provinces. Concern over the instability that would occur following the departure of U.N. troops led the Kennedy administration to sign bilateral military agreements with the Republic of the Congo and resulted in a May 1963 visit to Washington by Mobutu, who met with President Kennedy on May 31. Support for the Congo continued unabated during the Johnson administration. U.S. military assistance increased dramatically in response to the fall of Stanleyville (Kisangani) to rebel forces on August 4, 1964. Planes provided by the Department of Defense, flown by pilots supplied by the Central Intelligence Agency, augmented the CNA's efforts against an increasingly robust rebel insurgency, which received support from neighboring African nations, the Soviet bloc and Chinese Communists. The United States also made diplomatic approaches to the Organization of African Unity (OAU) to secure support for the Republic of the Congo. By late October, the situation in Stanleyville was dire. On October 28, the rebel Army commander placed all Westerners in the area (including a number of Americans) under house arrest. Smaller but significant numbers of hostages were seized in other cities under rebel control. A joint U.S.-Belgian effort to rescue the hostages in late November, Operation Dragon Rouge, succeeded but severely damaged Prime Minister Tshombe, who was viewed as ineffectual by both Kasavubu and Mobutu. He was dismissed in October 1965 and once again, the nation teetered on the brink of civil war. Mobutu orchestrated another coup d'état on November 25, 1965, removed both the President and Prime Minister, and took control of the government. Despite periodic uprisings and unrest, Mobutu ruled the Congo (renamed Zaire in 1971) until the mid-1990s. Viewed as mercurial and occasionally irrational, Mobutu nonetheless proved to be a staunch ally against Communist encroachment in Africa. As such, he received extensive U.S. financial, matériel, and political support, which increased his stature in much of Sub-Saharan Africa where he often served the interests of administrations from Johnson through Reagan.

Dominican Republic Instability

The Civil Rights Movement

In the middle of the 20th century, a nationwide movement for equal rights for African Americans and for an end to racial segregation and exclusion arose across the United States. This movement took many forms, and its participants used a wide range of means to make their demands felt, including sit-ins, boycotts, protest marches, freedom rides, and lobbying government officials for legislative action. They faced opposition on many fronts and fell victim to bombings and beatings, arrest and assassination. By the end of the 1960s, the civil rights movement had brought about dramatic changes in the law and in public practice, and had secured legal protection of rights and freedoms for African Americans that would shape American life for decades to come.

A few key moments include:

- **Brown v. Board of Education** The National Association for the Advancement of Colored People (NAACP) Legal Defense and Educational Fund, led by Thurgood Marshall, spent decades fighting against racial segregation in education. This long campaign culminated when the U.S. Supreme Court heard *Brown v. Board of Education*, which gathered together five separate cases related to school segregation with Marshall leading the arguments before the Court. On May 17, 1954, the U.S. Supreme Court ruled unanimously that “separate educational facilities are inherently unequal,” legally ending racial segregation in public schools and overruling the “separate but equal” principle set forth in *Plessy v. Ferguson* in 1889.
- **Rosa Parks arrested** On December 1, 1955, civil rights activist Rosa Parks was arrested when she refused to surrender her seat on a Montgomery, Alabama, bus to a white passenger. The arrest led to the Montgomery Bus Boycott, a pivotal event in the U.S. Civil Rights Movement, and was a defining moment in Parks' long career as an activist. The Montgomery Bus Boycott also saw the rise to prominence of a young Montgomery minister, Dr. Martin Luther King, Jr.
- **Little Rock school integration crisis** After the *Brown v. Board*, Supreme Court decision, state and local officials in a number of states resisted school integration. In September of 1957, nine African American students attempted to attend Central High School in Little Rock, Arkansas. The governor ordered the state's National Guard to surround the high school, and the Black students were harassed and kept from entering the building. President Dwight Eisenhower nationalized the Arkansas

National Guard and sent U.S. troops to protect the students and enforce the desegregation order of the federal courts.

- **Birmingham campaign** In the spring of 1963, the Southern Christian Leadership Conference, led by Dr. Martin Luther King, Jr., launched a large-scale campaign of sit-ins and marches in Birmingham, Alabama, to protest the city's brutal segregation policies. Many of the protestors and leaders were jailed, and while behind bars, Dr. King wrote a long public letter that explained his philosophy of non-violent protest. This document, which became known as "The Letter from Birmingham Jail," went on to be widely republished and regarded as a classic defense of the principles of civil disobedience.
- **The March on Washington** On August 28, 1963, hundreds of thousands of people arrived in Washington, D.C., for the largest non-violent civil rights demonstration that the nation had ever seen: The March on Washington for Jobs and Freedom. The march was organized in a few months, coordinated by veteran strategist Bayard Rustin, and was meant to demonstrate an urgent need for substantive change. The demands in the event program began with "Comprehensive and effective *civil rights legislation* from the present Congress" and included the end of discrimination in education, housing, employment, and more. Leaders and organizers met with members of Congress and with President John F. Kennedy, while the march ended at the Lincoln Memorial with music and speeches, including Dr. Martin Luther King, Jr.'s "I Have a Dream" speech.
- **The Selma civil rights marches** On March 7, 1965, a civil rights march in Selma, Alabama, led by 25-year-old activist leader John Lewis, was attacked by state troopers and sheriff's deputies as the marchers attempted to cross the city's Edmund Pettus Bridge. Coverage of the marchers being beaten, tear-gassed, and trampled by police horses prompted outrage across the nation, and activists, religious leaders, and everyday citizens flooded into Selma to lend their support. On March 9, a second group of marchers, led by Dr. Martin Luther King, Jr., approached the bridge, prayed there, and returned to church. On March 21, thousands of marchers crossed the bridge, this time protected by federalized National Guard troops, and headed to Montgomery.
- **The Civil Rights Act of 1964 and Voting Rights Act of 1965** The two most significant pieces of civil rights legislation since Reconstruction were passed within two years of each other. Between the two, these Acts outlawed discrimination based on race, color, religion, sex, or national origin. They banned discrimination in public

accommodations, public education, and employment, and prohibited race-based restrictions on voting. Such sweeping legislation had been a longtime goal of the civil rights movement, and it brought many of the laws and practices of the Jim Crow Era to an end.

Introduction to the Cabinet

One year in office, John F. Kennedy's Cabinet had shaken down in an interesting pattern. In performance and prestige, its members fell into three groups. From top to bottom:

Defense Secretary Robert S. McNamara stands as the strong man of the Kennedy Cabinet. His presence is emphatically felt by the Pentagon braid; his computing-machine efficiency has won the President's high admiration.

Treasury Secretary C. Douglas Dillon scores impressively for no-nonsense administration of his department, for a clear-eyed approach to such sticky problems as the gold flow, foreign aid, and tariff reduction; the new balanced budget gives Dillon another boost. He and Kennedy both cherish his Republicanism.

Attorney General Robert F. Kennedy remains his big brother's closest confidant; an Administration troubleshooter in foreign policy and national intelligence, he has acted with skill and dash in anti-racketeering and civil rights enforcement.

Labor Secretary Arthur J. Goldberg rates among the top Cabinet members for his articulation of the Administration's labor-management policies and for his adroit mediation of labor disputes involving ferryboats and tugboats, airline flight engineers, and the Metropolitan Opera.

State Secretary Dean Rusk ranks at the top of the middle group; although he retains the confidence of the President as his chief adviser on foreign policy, Rusk has struck few sparks as an Administration spokesman, has not yet solved the problems of internal administration at State, which is due for another major shakeup.

HEW Secretary Abraham A. Ribicoff has worked hard at advancing the Administration's welfare plans but hasn't yet sold Congress on the key programs—medical care for the aged and aid to education. His considerable vanity has exposed him to some sniping, but he is rated as a solid administrator.

Commerce Secretary Luther H. Hodges has served quietly and colorlessly as an administrator and as the New Frontier's link with business; the Administration expects him to distinguish himself in the impending fight to liberalize foreign trade.

Agriculture Secretary Orville L. Freeman has not improved the farm situation. Perhaps nobody can.

Postmaster General J. Edward Day is the unknown man of the Cabinet; he has struggled manfully to reduce his department's annual billion-dollar deficit, this year will champion a postal rate bill designed to increase the Department's revenues by \$650 million a year (but most of it will be absorbed by pay raises for Post Office employees).

Interior Secretary Stewart L. Udall has displayed symptoms of foot-in-mouth disease, frustrated by the White House's lack of interest in his grand design for new national parks and conservation programs.

HEW's Ribicoff, who plans to run this year for the Senate in Connecticut, will probably be the first member of Kennedy's Cabinet to depart. The first-year stability of the Kennedy Cabinet is not unusual. In Franklin Roosevelt's first year, only one Cabinet member left; he was Treasury Secretary William Woodin, who resigned because of illness. There was a wholesale turnover in Harry Truman's inherited first Cabinet, but in the year after that the only change in new members was the substitution of John Snyder for Treasury Secretary Fred Vinson, who was appointed Chief Justice. In Dwight Eisenhower's first year, only Labor Secretary Martin Durkin dropped out.

13.1 Dynamic of RFK

Assassination of John Fitzgerald Kennedy

From JFK to LBJ

15.1 Continuity of the Cabinet

Legacy of John F. Kennedy